

THE EFFECTS OF COMMUNICATIVE LANGUAGE TEACHING METHODS (CLT) OF
TEACHING ANCIENT GREEK ON STUDENT MOTIVATION, LANGUAGE LEARNING
EXPERIENCE, SELF-EFFICACY, FACILITATING ANXIETY, AND DEBILITATING
ANXIETY COMPARED TO THE GRAMMAR-TRANSLATION METHOD (GTM)

by

Dustin James Humphreys

Liberty University

A Dissertation Presented in Partial Fulfillment

Of the Requirements for the Degree

Doctor of Philosophy

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ABSTRACT

The purpose of this quantitative, causal-comparative study was to determine if ancient Greek language programs that use communicative language teaching methods (CLT) produce different student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety and debilitating anxiety scores than programs that primarily use the grammar-translation method (GTM) of teaching ancient Greek. This study is critical because the comprehensive teaching of the ancient Greek language has been on the decline in recent decades. This research aims to inform colleges, seminaries, and other language learning schools that teach classical languages, such as ancient Greek, about the potential positive effects of CLT on student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety among their ancient Greek language students. This positive impact could lead to higher retention rates and prolonged usage of language skills beyond graduation. This study had 123 participants and took place in several ancient Greek language programs. A MANOVA was used to determine whether two groups (GTM vs. CLT) differed in student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety. Analysis of the data indicated there was a statistically significant difference between CLT and GTM in regard to language learning experience, self-efficacy, and debilitating anxiety in which CLT produced higher scores than GTM. Post hoc analysis also found that CLT produced higher reading self-efficacy scores than GTM.

Keywords: Grammar-Translate Method, Communicative Language Teaching, Second Language Acquisition, Anxiety, Motivation, Language Learning Experience, Self-efficacy

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Dedication

«Τῷ δὲ δυναμένῳ ὑπὲρ πάντα ποιῆσαι ὑπερεκπερισσοῦ ὧν αἰτούμεθα ἢ νοοῦμεν κατὰ τὴν δύναμιν τὴν ἐνεργουμένην ἐν ἡμῖν, αὐτῷ ἡ δόξα ἐν τῇ ἐκκλησίᾳ καὶ ἐν Χριστῷ Ἰησοῦ εἰς πάσας τὰς γενεὰς τοῦ αἰῶνος τῶν αἰώνων· ἀμήν.»

ΠΡΟΣ ΕΦΕΣΙΟΥΣ γ': κ' - κα'

“But to the one able to do immeasurably more than all we request or think, according to the powerful working in us, to Him be the glory in the church and in Christ Jesus, for all generations, forever and ever. Amen”

Ephesians 3:20-21

Acknowledgments

θέλω εὐχαριστεῖν τοῖς συγγενεῦσιν καὶ τοῖς φίλοις καὶ τοῖς διδασκάλοις, οἵτινες
 στῦλοι ἦσαν ἐν τῇ ὁδοιπορίᾳ. ἡ παράκλησις ὑμῶν καὶ ἡ βοήθεια καὶ ἡ μακροθυμία
 πολύτιμοι ἐμοί. τοῖς λαλοῦσιν Ἑλληνιστὶ φίλοις, Ἰάσονι καὶ Ἀμβροσίῳ, λέγω· ἡ προθυμία
 ὑμῶν τῇ καλῇ Ἑλληνικῇ γλώσσῃ ἐπαίρει με ἔτι καὶ βεβοήθηκέ μοι καταντῆσαι πλείονι
 εὐγλωσσία καὶ συνέσει. ὑπὲρ πάντων, ὀφείλω ὀφείλημα εὐχαριστίας ὑπερεκπερισσοῦ τῇ
 ἡγαπημένη γυναικί, Τσέλσι· ἡ ἀγάπη σου καὶ ἡ ὑπομονὴ τὸ θεμέλιόν μου.

I want to thank my family, friends, and teachers who have been pillars of support
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List of Abbreviations

Grammar-Translate Method (GTM)

Communicative Language Teaching (CLT)

Second Language Acquisition (SLA)

Second Language (L2)

CHAPTER ONE: INTRODUCTION

Overview

The purpose of this quantitative, causal-comparative study was to determine if ancient Greek language programs that use communicative language teaching methods (CLT) produce different student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and anxiety debilitating scores than programs that primarily use the grammar-translation method (GTM) of teaching ancient Greek. Chapter One provides a background for the topics of second language acquisition (SLA), ancient Greek language pedagogy, language acquisition, student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety. Included in the background is an overview of the theoretical framework for this study. The problem statement examines the scope of the recent literature on this topic. The purpose of this study is followed by the significance of the current study. Finally, the research questions are introduced, and definitions pertinent to this study are provided.

Background

For the past 500 years, the primary method of teaching ancient languages has been the grammar-translation method (GTM) (Miller & Black, 2019; Rico & Pedicone, 2022). The GTM is the method by which a secondary (target) language is learned through explicit teaching of grammar rules with the end goal being able to quickly translate the secondary (target) language into the learner's native language. This method was also used for teaching modern languages until it was replaced by modern secondary language acquisition techniques (SLA), which primarily involves communicative language teaching (CLT) (Fazal et al., 2016). Although most modern SLA techniques involve some explicit teaching of grammar, they are primarily focused on actual practical use of the language (Wiyono, et al., 2017). The general problem today is the

perceived problem of the different opinions on the most effective way to teach ancient Greek (Miller & Black, 2019). Some ancient Greek language teachers suggest that the GTM should continue to be used for the teaching of the ancient Greek language. However, a growing number of ancient Greek language teachers are beginning to argue that ancient languages can be taught more effectively using CLT methodologies drawn from contemporary SLA research.

Historical Overview

The Greek language is distinct from the vast majority of other languages in that it has continually existed for at least 3,500 years and gone through 5 major periods of language classifications, including its modern form (Adrados, 2005). The Chinese language is the only other language that can claim such a long history of usage. Although the Greek language has lasted for thousands of years, it has undergone several modifications and adjustments over time (Marcolongo & Schutt, 2019). So much so that, despite the fact that most modern Greek speakers can recognize familiar words and forms in ancient Greek, they cannot read them fluently without additional instruction in those ancient forms (Buth & Alley, 2022). The older the ancient Greek text, the stranger it would be to a native speaker of modern Greek. Similarly, educated modern English speakers can generally read the King James Version of the Bible but would have great difficulty reading Beowulf in the original Old English unless they have spent significant time learning Old English.

The most prominent classical languages in the Western tradition are ancient Greek, Latin and Hebrew (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). This is primarily because these languages are interwoven with the Hebrew and Christian Bibles. The Hebrew Bible was primarily composed in biblical Hebrew, the Christian New Testament was composed in ancient Greek, and both were translated into Latin very early in the Christian movement. Unlike other ancient languages (ie. ancient

Egyptian hieroglyphics), which needed to be rediscovered and deciphered, these three classical languages have continually had people who knew the languages to various degrees (Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

Unlike Hebrew and Latin, ancient Greek stands apart from these classical languages in that it was seldom spoken, if at all, in Western Europe after Antiquity (Rico & Pedicone, 2022; Tunberg, 2022). Although there has continuously been a contemporary form of spoken Greek for 3,500 years, there was a significant time period in which ancient forms of the Greek language were no longer actively spoken, although they continued to be taught and read. Another significant difference between these three classical languages is that Latin and Hebrew have maintained the same morphology and core vocabulary since Antiquity, while ancient Greek has undergone significant morphological changes as it progressed from Attic to Koine to Byzantine to Modern Greek (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Although there are native speakers of modern Greek, these morphological changes make it more difficult for modern Greek speakers to fully understand the writings of Plato or even the New Testament unless they have specifically studied the ancient Greek language (Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

The most interesting historical fact is that ancient Greek, like Latin and Hebrew, were primarily taught through communicative means for well over the first millennia after they ceased to be a native language (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). As time progressed and these classical languages became more academic, there was a push to focus on the memorization of grammar rules, which would allow academics and scholars to focus on translation into their native language instead of communication in the target language (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). This led to the GTM being specifically developed to teach classical languages like ancient Greek and Latin in the early 19th century (Fazal et al., 2016). The justification for using this method with the

classical languages centered around the notion that the purpose of learning the classical languages was to learn to read the target language and not speak it (Miller & Black, 2019).

However, as the GTM grew in popularity with the classical languages, it began to be used in teaching modern/contemporary languages as well (Fazal et al., 2016). This resulted in the GTM being the primary teaching model for foreign languages from the late 19th century through the early 20th century (Natsir & Sanjaya, 2014). However, during World War II, it became evident that the GTM was not producing fluent speakers of foreign languages who could easily communicate with allies or understand enemy communications (Rahman, 2021). This led the United States government to replace the GTM with techniques that were grounded in the linguistic theories of the time (Rahman, 2021). Since World War II, the teaching of foreign languages has heavily relied on current SLA theories that utilize CLT techniques (Hawkins, 2019). Despite this progress in the teaching of modern languages, the GTM has persisted in the teaching of classical languages and remains the primary mode by which these languages are taught (Miller & Black, 2019). However, there is a growing movement of “living language” enthusiasts who are attempting to rediscover the communicative pedagogical roots of teaching classical languages by utilizing the same techniques that language teachers use in teaching modern languages (Hill, 2021; Rico & Pedicone, 2022, lxxix).

Society-at-Large

Until as recently as 150 years ago, students were required to have at least a basic knowledge of ancient Greek and Latin in order to be admitted to universities in the Western world (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). While one might argue that knowledge of these classical languages is no longer necessary for students who do not desire degrees in the classics, it is evident that any student of the classics would need a working knowledge of the classical

languages (Miller & Black, 2019). When it comes to the field of ancient Greek language learning, most students who take ancient Greek courses take them because they are part of the required class load for a seminary degree (Sanders, 2017).

This requirement to learn ancient Greek for seminary students is because the original language of the New Testament text is ancient Greek and one of the oldest and most used translations of the Hebrew Bible, the Septuagint (LXX), was written in Ancient Greek. This means that most students who learn ancient Greek do so as part of some theological education. However, in recent years, many seminaries and colleges have been reducing the number of classes of ancient Greek that students must take, and some have even removed the requirements altogether (Sanders, 2017). Many of these classes are being dropped because students have a hard time passing the classes (Miller & Black, 2019). This trend is alarming because it should be expected that a student who wants to be an expert in the New Testament text should at least have a basic working knowledge of the original language, ancient Greek. In comparison, if a student wants to major in French literature in college, it would be preposterous to suggest that this student does not need to master the French language.

Although these colleges and universities are reducing the number of ancient Greek courses, many ancient language teachers argue that these classical languages are not so uniquely difficult as to make them more challenging to learn than other languages. These scholars argue that the use of the GTM is what has caused students to struggle with learning ancient Greek because it is an unnatural way to learn a language (Murphy & Hastings, 2006; Rico, & Kopf, 2021). They also argue that shifting away from the GTM model of learning ancient Greek would improve student achievement and significantly affect student motivation to learn the language (Miller & Black, 2019).

Theoretical Background

Advocates of the GTM, have never justified the method through any theoretical or conceptual background (Richards & Rodgers, 2001). The general argument that advocates of the GTM offer is that if students only desire to read in the target language, then it is unnecessary to learn how to communicate actively in the language (Plummer, 2021). Some have even suggested that there is a phenomenon of “lock-in” that has taken place in the field of ancient Greek language pedagogy (Plummer, 2019). Plummer has suggested that one of the main factors that prevents the field of ancient Greek language pedagogy from evolving is that professors are “locked-in” to their current style of teaching (Plummer, 2019). Many ancient Greek language teachers teach using the same ancient Greek grammar textbook that they were taught with when they were in college (Plummer, 2019). This means that although ancient Greek language teachers may objectively believe that there are better ways of teaching or better modes of pronunciation, they continue to teach in the same way they were taught because it would be too difficult for everyone to change (Plummer, 2019). This is in line with broader research, which has found that teachers tend to use the same pedagogical methods that were used by their teachers when they were students (Oleson & Hora, 2014). However, it is essential to realize that there is no underlying SLA theory that advocates of GTM offer to justify their position (Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

Advocates of teaching ancient Greek by utilizing modern SLA techniques with an emphasis on communicative language techniques (CLT) are founded on Vygotsky’s theoretical framework of social constructivism and primarily cite Krashen’s (1981) theory of second language acquisition (SLA) and Paul Nation’s four strands of language learning as their theoretical or conceptual foundation (Nation, 2007). Vygotsky’s social constructivism theory

asserts that individuals actively construct their own understanding of the world through social interaction and interpretation of information (Berger & Luckmann, 1966). This theoretical framework emphasizes the collaborative aspect of learning and says that knowledge is shaped by cultural and social elements such as language, history, and social traditions rather than being predetermined and rigid (Vygotsky, 1978). This concept is predicated on the idea that learning occurs via meaningful interaction with others (Wertsch, 1991).

Krashen's (1981) theory is based on five underlying hypotheses of language learning: the acquisition-learning hypothesis; the monitor hypothesis; the input hypothesis; and the affective filter hypothesis; and the natural order hypothesis. The acquisition-learning hypothesis is the most fundamental of the five and claims that humans have an acquired system and learned system of learning a foreign language. The acquired system is a subconscious process of language acquisition that happens when children learn their first language. The learned system is a structured process by which a person learns a language's grammar rules.

The monitor hypothesis focuses on the relationship between the acquired system and the learned system. Krashen (1981) argues that language learners used the learned system as a check and editor/monitor what has been learned with the acquired system. The input hypothesis argues that for a person to acquire a second language, they have to receive comprehensible input in a "natural order" that is slightly beyond their current linguistic competence (Krashen, 1981). The affective filter hypothesis focuses on the affective variables involved in second language acquisition. This hypothesis states that student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety play essential roles in language learners' ability to acquire a second language. Finally, the natural order hypothesis argues that second-language acquisition follows a

natural and predictable order in which specific grammatical skills are learned early on and others later (Krashen, 1981).

Paul Nation and Azusa Yamamoto argue that “the principle of four strands says that a well-balanced language course should have four equal strands of meaning-focused input, meaning-focused output, language-focused learning, and fluency learning” (2012, p.173). The first strand focuses on meaning-focused input, which involves language learning through listening and reading. The second strand focuses on meaning-focused output, which involves language learning through speaking and writing. Nation argues that these first two strands work together and primarily involve incidental learning (Nation, 2007). This means that the first two strands require language learners to focus on meaning rather than grammatical issues. The third strand focuses on language-focused learning and involves language learners deliberately learning about language features such as grammar, spelling, pronunciation, vocabulary, etc. Nation (2007) does not entirely disregard GTM but argues that it should be placed in this strand as a part of the holistic way a language can be learned (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). The final strand focuses on fluency development and involves language learners mastering the content that they already know and understand. This strand focuses on a student’s ability to actively receive and produce the target language at a reasonable rate (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). This approach has three message-focused strands (meaning-focused input, meaning-focused output, and fluency development) and one language-focused strand (language-focused learning) (Nation, 2007). Nation argues that his four-strand approach to language learning provides a holistic approach that will promote language learning (Nation, 2007).

Krashen’s (1981) theory of second language acquisition (SLA) argues that there is a natural order to how languages are learned and that second languages should be learned in a way

that mirrors how people learn their native language. This means that students primarily learn through active use of the target language. Nation's (2007) four strands of language learning also argue that language learning is primarily built upon a four-strand system that emphasizes the need for meaning-focused work rather than intensive grammar, language-focused work. These theories are already widely recognized and utilized by modern language teachers in classrooms worldwide and have been shown to provide excellent results (Nation, 2007). These three theorists provide the foundation for this current study because this study explored the relationship between student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety scores among students learning ancient Greek by utilizing communicative language teaching methods utilized and promoted by Vygotsky, Krashen, and Nation.

Problem Statement

Until as recently as 150 years ago, students were required to have at least a basic knowledge of ancient Greek and Latin in order to be admitted to universities in the Western world (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). However, over the past several decades, ancient Greek language skills have waned (Blankenborg, 2022). Some say that it is because the ancient languages are no longer relevant. However, it is possible that it is not the relevance that has caused the decline in the learning of ancient languages but the methods in which the languages are taught. For the past 200 years, ancient languages like ancient Greek and Latin have been primarily taught with the GTM (Miller & Black, 2019). This method emphasizes the grammar rules of a language as the primary way one interacts with the target language. This means that students do not learn to speak the language but interpret the rules and translate them into their native language. This was the dominant method for teaching all languages in the United States until World War II when

modern language teachers abandoned it because it was ineffective (Murphy & Hastings, 2006; Rahman, 2021). However, the use of the GTM has persisted in teaching ancient languages. Although most ancient Greek teachers in universities and seminaries still hold to the GTM, there is a growing group of researchers and teachers who are exploring the use of modern second language acquisition techniques (SLA) for teaching ancient languages, such as the communicative language teaching method (CLT) (Miller & Black, 2019). These modern SLA theories have been shown to effectively reduce student anxiety and increase student motivation and self-efficacy in modern language learning compared to the GTM (Krashen, 1981; Nation, 2007). However, there is a gap in the research regarding the effects of these techniques on student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety in teaching ancient Greek (Miller & Black, 2019). The problem is that more research needs to be done on the effects of modern SLA techniques on student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety among students of ancient Greek.

Purpose Statement

In response to the growing discontentment with the GTM among teachers of ancient Greek, the purpose of this quantitative, causal-comparative study was to determine if ancient Greek language programs that use communicative language teaching methods (CLT) produce different student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety scores than programs that primarily use the grammar-translation method (GTM) of teaching ancient Greek. The categorical independent variable is language pedagogy and is made up of two groups: communicative language teaching methods (CLT) and grammar-translation method (GTM). The dependent variable, student motivation, will be generally defined

as the desire to achieve proficiency in a language (Krashen, 1981). The dependent variable, language learning experience refers to the variety of factors and individual differences, including motivation, anxiety, teaching methods, prior language experience, and cognitive abilities that can play a role in language learning success (Dornyei, 2005). The dependent variable, self-efficacy, in language learning refers to an individual's belief in their ability to succeed in learning a second language (Dornyei & Skehan, 2003). The dependent variable, student anxiety, will be generally defined as a state of apprehension, nervousness, or worry that is specific to the language learning context and can interfere with an individual's ability to learn a second or foreign language (MacIntyre & Gardner, 1989). The population studied are adult students enrolled in ancient Greek language courses in a university-level program.

Significance of the Study

This study adds to the body of knowledge by exploring the effects of CLT on student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety. Student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety are significant when it comes to learning a language and significantly impact whether or not a student will successfully learn a language (Khan & Takkac, 2021; Piniel & Csizer, 2013). This study builds on past research that helped determine that there is a crisis in Greek pedagogy (Miller & Black, 2019). Miller and Black (2019) found that teachers of ancient Greek in seminaries agree that their students who learned ancient Greek with GTM are not retaining their language skills after they leave the school. They go so far as to argue that GTM, as a method for teaching ancient Greek, is failing students and needs to be addressed (Miller & Black, 2019). Miller and Black (2019) also argued that motivation and self-efficacy are extremely important factors in whether or not an ancient Greek student will be successful in

learning ancient Greek. This study addresses how using CLTs might affect a student's motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety in their use of ancient Greek. This information can help colleges, seminaries, and other language learning schools that teach classical languages like ancient Greek using the GTM explore how CLT might provide a positive effect on student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety among their ancient Greek students, which would lead to higher retention rates and prolonged usage of language skills beyond graduation (Natsir & Sanjaya, 2014).

Research Question

RQ1: Is there a difference between students using communicative language teaching vs. grammar-translation method on student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety in adult, university-level (accredited and nonaccredited) ancient Greek language programs?

Definitions

1. *Anxiety* - will be generally defined as a state of apprehension, nervousness, or worry that is specific to the language learning context and can interfere with an individual's ability to learn a second or foreign language (MacIntyre & Gardner, 1989).
2. *Communicative Language Teaching* - will be generally defined as any language teaching method that intend to make the communicative competence the main goal of the language teaching process (Natsir & Sanjaya, 2014).
3. *Complexity* – Complexity in language learning refers to the level of difficulty or intricacy of a language form or structure (Larsen-Freeman & Cameron, 2008). It can refer to the

syntactic, morphological, or phonological complexity of a language, and it can also refer to the cognitive demands of processing or producing language (Larsen-Freeman & Cameron, 2008). Complexity is an important factor to consider in language teaching and learning, as it can influence learners' ability to acquire and use the target language.

4. *Debilitating anxiety* – will be generally defined as anxiety that inhibits or prevents the learner from investing more effort into language learning (Piniel & Csizer, 2013).
5. *Facilitating anxiety* – will be generally defined as anxiety that motivates the learner to invest more effort into language learning (Piniel & Csizer, 2013).
6. *Fluency* – Fluency in language learning refers to the ability to speak or write a second language with ease, accuracy, and naturalness (Larsen-Freeman & Cameron, 2008). It is a measure of a learner's proficiency in the target language and is typically characterized by the ability to produce language automatically, with minimal hesitation and errors (Larsen-Freeman & Cameron, 2008).
7. *Grammar-Translation Method* – will be generally defined as the pedagogy where language is taught deductively through rote memorization of grammatical structures and vocabulary with the goal of being able to quickly translate a text into one's own native language (Fazal et al., 2016).
8. *L2* – L2 refers to a second language that an individual learns after their first language or native language (Duchesne & Swain, 2007). It is also referred to as an "additional language," "foreign language," or "second dialect."
9. *Language Learning Experience* - will be generally defined as the variety of factors and individual differences, including motivation, anxiety, teaching methods, prior language

experience, and cognitive abilities that can play a role in language learning success (Dornyei, 2005).

10. *Motivation* - will be generally defined as the student's desire to achieve proficiency in a language (Krashen, 1981).
11. *Reading* – Reading in language learning refers to the process of interpreting and understanding written texts in a second language (Krashen, 2004). It is an important aspect of language acquisition as it allows learners to access and interact with written language, which can provide them with information about the target language and its culture.
12. *Second Language Acquisition* – will be generally defined as the process by which a language learner gains fluency in a target language other than their native language (Ponniah, 2010).
13. *Self-Efficacy* – Self-efficacy in language learning refers to an individual's belief in their ability to succeed in learning a second language (Dornyei & Skehan, 2003). According to Dornyei and Skehan (2003), self-efficacy can influence language learners' motivation, self-esteem, and overall success in acquiring a second language.
14. *Target Language* – The target language is the language that an individual is learning or attempting to speak (Larsen-Freeman & Cameron, 2008). It is the goal or intended outcome of language learning.

CHAPTER TWO: LITERATURE REVIEW

Overview

A systematic review of the literature was conducted to explore learner perceptions of the communicative “living” language approach versus the grammar-translate method (GTM) for learning ancient Greek. This chapter will present a review of the current literature related to the topic of study. In the first section, the theories of social constructionism and second language acquisition (SLA) will be discussed, followed by a synthesis of recent literature regarding the history of the Greek language, how ancient languages should be classified (dead, living, or research), the major methods and goals of teaching ancient Greek today, and the history of ancient language pedagogy. Lastly, the literature surrounding current theories of second language acquisition, how modern languages are taught, and how this might apply to the teaching of ancient languages will be addressed. In the end, a gap in the literature will be identified, presenting a viable need for the current study.

Theoretical Framework

This study was grounded in Vygotsky’s (1978) theory of social constructivism and further framed by Krashen’s (1981) theory of second language acquisition (SLA) and Paul Nations’ four strands of language learning (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). Vygotsky’s theory of social constructivism emphasizes the collaborative nature of learning and asserts that individuals actively construct their own understanding of the world through social interaction and interpretation of information (Berger & Luckmann, 1966). Krashen’s (1981) theory of second language acquisition (SLA) is based on five underlying hypotheses: the acquisition-learning hypothesis, the natural order hypothesis, the monitor hypothesis, the comprehensible input hypothesis, and the affective filter hypothesis. Paul Nations’ four strands of language learning

theorize that language learning programs are most successful when they revolve around four equal learning strands: meaning-focused input, meaning-focused output, language-focused learning, and fluency development (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012).

Social Constructivism

Vygotsky's theory of social constructivism is the theoretical framework that asserts that individuals actively construct their own understanding of the world through social interaction and interpretation of information (Berger & Luckmann, 1966). In this theoretical framework, the collaborative nature of learning is emphasized and asserts that knowledge is molded by cultural and social factors such as language, history, and social customs as opposed to being preset and rigid (Vygotsky, 1978). At the core of this framework is the assertion that learning occurs through meaningful interaction with others (Wertsch, 1991). Various fields, including education, psychology, and sociology, utilize the social constructivist theoretical framework in order to help explain how individuals learn and develop in response to their social environments. According to this paradigm, when individuals communicate ideas and viewpoints, they establish a shared understanding through conversation and negotiation among individuals who bring diverse perspectives and experiences to the classroom (Rogoff, 1990). The ultimate outcome of this interactive process is learning.

Social Constructivism and Education

The social constructivist framework has significant consequences for education, especially in terms of teacher and student responsibilities. In a social constructivist classroom, students are encouraged to ask questions and pursue new information through conversation and exploration (Vygotsky, 1978). Teachers, on the other hand, work as facilitators in the social constructivist classroom. Their primary responsibility is to create group learning activities and

encourage students to engage in these group activities so that through conversation and exchange of ideas, they can assess their own and others' perspectives critically (Brooks & Brooks, 1993).

Social Constructivism and Language Learning

The social constructivist framework also has significant implications for the field of applied linguistics, the study of language acquisition, and the role that social interaction plays in this process. In the field of applied linguistics, social constructivism has been used to explain how language learners acquire a language primarily through interaction with others (Swain & Lapkin, 1998). This is because one of the fundamental principles of social constructionism is the idea that knowledge is co-constructed through social interaction, and at its core, language acquisition is a social activity (Wertsch, 1991). Therefore, a language is not simply acquired through exposure to linguistic input but instead is acquired through social interaction in which learners negotiate the meaning of language with others through written or verbal communication resulting in mutual comprehension of that language (i.e. acquisition) (Lantolf & Thorne, 2006).

Relationship Between SLA Theory and Language Teaching Practice

Stephen Krashen (1981) noted that there are three approaches to the method of teaching languages. The first approach is the actual use SLA theory as the primary guide for language teaching, which refers to the various theories revolving around how language learners gain fluency in a target language other than their native language (Ponniah, 2010). Krashen's theory of SLA is based on five underlying hypotheses: the acquisition-learning hypothesis, the natural order hypothesis, the monitor hypothesis, the comprehensible input hypothesis, and the affective filter hypothesis. As with all scientific theories, a language theorist must have a set of assumptions or generalizations that are found to be consistent with experimental data and are able to predict new data (Krashen). In this sense, Krashen notes that no hypothesis can be

definitively proven but only shown to be consistent with existing data. Krashen argues that his theory of SLA, outlined below, captures the current linguistic data better than other generalizations (Krashen).

The second approach is applied linguistics research (Krashen, 1981). Applied linguistics research is primarily concerned with practical issues revolving around language in the everyday life of a community (Perry, 2005). In this research study, applied linguistics research is a reference to the practical aspect of how second languages are actually taught in the classroom. The majority of applied research in linguistics does not aim at testing a coherent theory of SLA, but rather on solving practical, real-world problems (Krashen, 1981). An example of this would be a research project where a group of students is taught a foreign language using CLT and another group of students is taught using GTM with the stated purpose of finding out which method of teaching should be used when teaching that foreign language (Krashen, 1981).

The third approach revolves around the ideas and intuitions gathered from the experiences of teachers and students of foreign languages (Krashen, 1981). Krashen notes that while the results of SLA research are regularly published in scholarly journals, the insights of language teachers are not always easily shared. There are several language organizations, like the California TESOL organization, that arrange meetings for teachers to share their expertise (Krashen, 1981). However, these conferences do not seek to present empirical data demonstrating the validity of the new techniques given by the teachers but simply present these new techniques as ideas that some teachers anecdotally have found effective in their own classroom instruction (Krashen, 1981).

In an ideal situation, all three of these methods would equally inform each other and, in turn, inform actual language teaching practice as it is found in the classroom (Krashen, 1981).

However, the actual relationship historically has primarily been between the third method of the ideas and intuitions of teachers and students and actual language teaching practice as it is found in the classroom (Krashen, 1981). Krashen argues that this relationship between ideas and intuitions and language teaching practice is currently dominant because the primary relationship in the past was between SLA theory and language teaching practice. This prior dominant relationship between SLA theory and language teaching practice was largely destroyed when SLA theorists argued that they had found the “only way” to teach a language (ie. audio-lingual and applied transformational grammar) which ultimately resulted in failure in the classroom when it did not deliver the promised results (Krashen, 1981). This failure caused the pendulum to swing from a dominant SLA theory and language teaching practice relationship to a dominant “ideas and intuitions” and language teaching practice relationship. Krashen does not argue that these SLA theories are not useful, but that they were simply not “the end all be all” of language learning. This failure of the exclusive connection between SLA theory and language teaching practice led to an equally poor exclusive connection between “ideas and intuitions” and language teaching practice on the other end of the spectrum (Krashen, 1981).

Krashen’s (1981) conclusion is that all three of these methods would naturally have an interest in each other. SLA theorists should have an interest in applied research because research findings could confirm or counter their hypotheses (Krashen). Applied linguistic researchers should also have an interest in SLA theory as it would allow them to gain deeper insights from the results of their studies (Krashen). Krashen also suggests that it would be beneficial for SLA theorists and applied linguistic researchers to be involved in language teaching and learning to gain further insights into the language acquisition process. Finally, it is evident that language teachers and students would be very interested in research surrounding the most effective

methods of teaching language because it would make them better practitioners. Krashen argues that this balanced approach of SLA theory, applied linguistics research, and “ideas and intuitions” informing each other will lead to better classroom language teaching practice.

Krashen’s 40 Year’s War (Comprehensive Input or Skill-Building)

Krashen (2018) states there has been a roughly 40-years’ war in the field of linguistics between two major hypotheses about how language is acquired, and literacy is developed. The first hypothesis is the comprehension hypothesis, and it states that language acquisition and literacy development occur when people focus on understanding the messages that language conveys (Krashen, 2018). CLT would overlap and fit within the comprehension hypothesis because communicative techniques tend to focus on comprehensible student output and, more importantly, comprehensible student input at the student’s current fluency level and slightly beyond the student’s current fluency level.

The second hypothesis is the skill-building hypothesis, and it states that language acquisition takes place through the conscious memorization of vocabulary and grammar rules (Krashen, 2018). This hypothesis claims that fluency is achieved through constant, conscious memorization and practice of vocabulary and grammar rules (Krashen, 2018). The GTM would fit within the skill-building hypothesis and has been considered an axiom of linguistics in many circles for decades. However, there has not been a single documented case of someone acquiring a language through skill-building only (Krashen, 2018). Krashen has stated that he believes that the comprehension hypothesis has been shown to be more successful in research and his goal is to reduce the skill-building hypothesis from an axiom back to a hypothesis. The comprehension hypothesis is one of the foundational blocks of Krashen’s theory of SLA and will be discussed in more detail below (Krashen, 1981, 2013, 2018).

Krashen's Theory of Second Language Acquisition

Krashen's (1981) theory of SLA is based on five underlying hypotheses: the acquisition-learning hypothesis; natural order hypothesis; the monitor hypothesis; the comprehensible input hypothesis; and the affective filter hypothesis. The acquisition-learning hypothesis is the most fundamental of the five and claims that humans have an acquired system and learned system of learning a foreign language (Krashen, 1981, 2013). The acquired system is a subconscious process of language acquisition that happens when children learn their first language (Krashen, 1981, 2013). The learned system is a structured process by which a person learns the grammar rules of a language (Krashen, 1981, 2013).

The natural order hypothesis argues that SLA follows a natural and predictable order in which specific grammatical skills are learned early on, and others are learned later (Krashen, 1981, 2013). The monitor hypothesis focuses on the relationship between the acquired system and the learned system (Krashen, 1981, 2013). Krashen argues that language learners use the learned system as a check and editor/monitor on what has been learned with the acquired system. The input hypothesis argues that for a person to acquire a second language, they must receive comprehensible input in a "natural order" that is slightly beyond their current level of linguistic competence (Krashen, 1981, 2013). Finally, the affective filter hypothesis focuses on the affective variables that are involved in second language acquisition (Krashen, 1981, 2013). This hypothesis states that student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety play an essential role in a language learner's ability to acquire a second language (Krashen, 1981, 2013).

Paul Nation's Four Strands of Language Learning

Another prominent linguist named Paul Nation (2007) has posited that a well-balanced language course should be equally divided between four strands of language learning: meaning-focused input, meaning-focused output, language-focused learning, and fluency development (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). Nation and Yamamoto argue that each strand should be given equal treatment with about 25% of a student's time spent on any one single strand. Meaning-focused input, meaning-focused output, and fluency development are all "meaning-focused" strands (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). The third strand, language-focused learning, focuses explicitly on grammar and should take up about 25% of a language learner's time (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). This means that although explicit grammar instruction, through the language-focused strand, is beneficial, it should only take up 25% of instructional time. Most of the instructional time should be spent focusing on language acquisition through the focus on the meaning of the L2 rather than explicit grammar.

Meaning Focused Input

The first strand of language learning is meaning-focused input. Meaning-focused input is the strand that involves learning an L2 through listening and reading (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). The language acquisition that would occur through this strand of language learning is primarily incidental because the focus is not on grammar but on understanding the meaning of the text and comprehending the message that is being conveyed through the L2 (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). This language strand would fit into Krashen's (2013) input hypothesis because comprehensible input is input in which understanding of the meaning of the text is the primary goal.

Meaning Focused Output

The second strand of language learning is meaning-focused output. Meaning-focused output is the strand that involves learning an L2 through speaking and writing (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). Just like the first strand of language learning, the language acquisition that would occur through meaning-focused output is primarily incidental because the focus is not on grammar but on understanding the meaning of the L2 being spoken or written and comprehending the message that is being conveyed through the L2 (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). This is the only strand that does not fit within one of Krashen's five hypotheses of language acquisition because there is still debate about how much output plays into language acquisition. However, most linguists agree that comprehensible input/meaning-focused input cannot occur if there is no output (Hill, 2022; Krashen, 2013; Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). So, by necessity, meaning-focused output is required for meaning-focused input to occur.

Language Focused Learning

The third strand of language learning is language-focused learning which is what most people think of when it comes to the process of learning an L2. Language-focused learning involves deliberate and explicit teaching and learning of the features of an L2, including grammar, spelling, pronunciation, vocabulary, and discourse (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). This strand is also referred to as form-focused instruction in the field of SLA (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). The GTM would fall into this strand of language learning (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). This strand would also fit into Krashen's (2013) learned system in his acquisition-learning hypothesis.

Fluency Development

The fourth and final strand of language learning is fluency development. Fluency development aims at helping language learners further develop their fluency in an L2 by making use of what they already know in the L2 (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). Nation and Yamamoto argue that this is like the time-on-task principle. The more time that is spent on an activity, the more proficient one will be at that activity. So, the more time a student spends actively using the L2 knowledge they already have acquired, the more fluency they will achieve at that level. This strand aims to help language learners receive and produce an L2 at a reasonable rate (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). This strand would also fit into Krashen's (2013) input hypothesis because it argues that fluency is gained by making use of what a student already knows. The input hypothesis requires that language learners need comprehensible input just beyond their current level of linguistic competence in order for language acquisition to occur (Krashen, 2013).

Related Literature

The History of the Greek Language

The Greek language differs from the vast majority of languages in that it has existed for at least 3,500 years and still has a modern version that still exists today (Adrados, 2005). The only other language that can boast such a long tradition of use is the Chinese language. Although the Greek language has existed for thousands of years, many changes and adaptations have come and gone over the years (Marcolongo & Schutt, 2019). So much so that although most modern Greek speakers can see familiar words in ancient Greek, most cannot read ancient Greek with any real fluency (Buth & Alley, 2022). The older the ancient Greek text, the more foreign it would be to a modern Greek native speaker today. This is similar to how educated modern English speakers can generally read the King James Version of the Bible but would have great

difficulty reading Beowulf in the original Old English unless they have spent time learning Old English. These various forms of the Greek Language have been through five major periods of Classification:

1. Mycenaean Period (1400 – 1300 BCE) (Linear B: oldest written form of Greek known)
 *Dark Ages (1200 BCE – 800 BCE) it seems the Greeks were widely illiterate during this time, very little is known about this time period
2. Archaic and Classical Periods (800 – 400 BCE) (Archaic and Classical Greek)
3. Hellenistic and Roman Periods (400 BCE – 400 CE) (Attic Greek and Koine Greek)
4. Byzantine Period (400 CE – 1400 CE) (Medieval/Byzantine Greek)
5. Modern Period (1400 CE – Present) (Modern Greek) (Ruijgh et al., 2018).

It is important to note that the phrase “ancient Greek” covers a wide range of different morphological changes and dialects. For the purpose of this study, the Attic dialect from the Classical Period and Koine dialect from Hellenistic and Roman Periods are the main focus when making reference to the “ancient Greek language.” The Athenians used the Attic dialect during the Classical Period, and Koine was the *lingua franca* during the Hellenistic and Roman Periods. Koine was also the ancient Greek dialect of the New Testament text. This study classifies “ancient Greek” in this way because when students learn “ancient Greek” they are referring to one of these two dialects most of the time.

Is Ancient Greek a Dead Language, Living Language, or Research Language?

When it comes to the study of ancient languages, there are three different methods of classifying an ancient language. The first classification is “dead language” (Foster, 2018). This is used to describe a language that is no longer developing and no longer has native speakers.

Ancient Greek is often thought of as a dead language because although there is still a group of native speakers who speak modern Greek, it has evolved so much that it is considered a separate and distinct language today.

The second classification is “living language.” This position argues that since there are still native Greek speakers who speak modern Greek, then ancient Greek should be classified as a living language and should be taught as a living language. This classification does not consider that the ancient forms of ancient Greek are markedly different from modern Greek. This classification prioritizes the communicative use of the language in conversation and focuses on active knowledge of ancient Greek (Foster, 2018).

The final classification is “research language.” This is a language that is studied for the sole purpose of reading and understanding (Miller & Black, 2019). Many scholars believe that although modern Greek is a living language, the study of ancient Greek is primarily aimed at reading and understanding ancient texts and not speaking (Hill, 2021). This final classification strongly emphasizes being able to read ancient texts and focuses on passive knowledge of ancient Greek. The issue with these three classifications is that they are all arguably correct, which can be a contributing cause to the difference of opinions when it comes to how ancient Greek is taught (Foster, 2018; Miller & Black, 2019).

The History of Ancient Language Pedagogy from Antiquity to Present

The most prominent classical languages in the Western tradition are ancient Greek, Latin and Hebrew (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). This is primarily because these languages are interwoven with the Hebrew and Christian Bibles. The Hebrew Bible was primarily composed in biblical Hebrew, the Christian New Testament was composed in ancient Greek, and both were translated into Latin very early in the Christian movement. Unlike other ancient languages (ie. ancient

Egyptian hieroglyphics) which needed to be rediscovered and deciphered, these three classical languages have continually had people who knew the languages to various degrees (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). The first major historical divide between these three languages is that Latin and Hebrew have always been spoken (Rico & Pedicone, 2022; Tunberg, 2022). On the one hand, Latin has been spoken at the academic level even after Latin ceased being a native language between the 6th and 8th centuries CE (Rico & Pedicone, 2022; Tunberg, 2022). On the other hand, Hebrew has been continuously spoken in some capacity within Jewish communities from Antiquity to the present day (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Ancient Greek stands apart from these classical languages in that it was seldom spoken in Western Europe after Antiquity (Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

One more major difference between these three classical languages is that Latin and Hebrew have maintained the same morphology and core vocabulary since Antiquity, while ancient Greek has undergone profound morphological changes as it progressed from Attic to Koine to Byzantine to Modern Greek (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Unlike Latin, there are native speakers of Modern Greek. There is no modern version of the Latin language, although it is the foundation of the Romance Languages (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Although there are native speakers of modern Greek, the profound morphological changes that have occurred over time make it more difficult for modern Greek speakers to fully understand the writings of Plato or even the New Testament unless they have specifically studied the ancient Greek language (Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

Ancient Greek and Latin Language Pedagogy in Antiquity. When Classical languages like Greek and Latin still had an abundance of native speakers (300 BCE – 300 CE) it was very common for speakers of Latin to learn Greek and vice versa (Dickey, 2022; Rico & Pedicone,

2022). During this period the most common way that a person learned Latin or ancient Greek was through spoken immersion in the language itself (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Immersion was easy to accomplish because most people during this period would have had access to native speakers of both languages (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). In fact, it was common for wealthy Romans to learn ancient Greek from Greek slaves at home through spoken immersion in the language (Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

Although early grammar text resources were used for language learning, they were primarily used for fluent speakers of the language to gain a better understanding of the language they already knew (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). These grammars were not used to teach the language to new speakers (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Around 150 CE, about a third of the population of Rome would have been fluent speakers of ancient Greek (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). However, during the following centuries, the number of ancient Greek speakers began gradually declining until it reached a point where very few people had the ability to translate ancient Greek into Latin (around the 4th century AD) (Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

Ancient Greek and Latin Language Pedagogy in the Middle Ages and Renaissance.

During the Middle Ages, Latin was still taught as a spoken language even though it had ceased being a mother tongue (Rico & Pedicone, 2022; Tunberg, 2022). On the other hand, ancient Greek knowledge was on the decline. Scholars who achieved any knowledge of ancient Greek would have learned it orally through exposure to Byzantine Greek scholars who still spoke ancient Greek or through ancient Greek texts, which also had Latin translations (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). During the Renaissance, there were major developments in the teaching of Latin and ancient Greek, which led to an increase in the knowledge of these languages (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). In countries that spoke Romance languages, it was required for students to

learn Latin as a spoken language (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Latin Grammars were used, but they were completely written in the Latin language itself (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Another innovation in teaching Latin was teaching students to write and perform plays in Latin, which forced students to have an active spoken knowledge of the language (Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

By the 15th century, the Greek language was at a point of diglossia, which is when the spoken version of Greek (Byzantine Greek) was different from the written one that was being studied (Attic and Koine Greek) (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). However, the languages were similar enough, and scholars had a mastery of the written ancient Greek text that they were also able to compose new texts using Koine Greek prose (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Also, during this period, elementary texts were more widely available. This meant that students of ancient Greek did not necessarily require a native speaker of ancient Greek to instruct them. They could attempt to learn ancient Greek through self-instruction (Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

Despite these advances in the knowledge of the ancient Greek language, by the 16th century, it was very rare to find a scholar who could actually speak ancient Greek (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Also, by this time, most teachers of ancient Greek primarily taught the language in the common vernacular instead of ancient Greek (Black, 2022; Rico & Pedicone, 2022). When Byzantium fell, it became challenging for Westerners to have enough contact with native speakers of Byzantine Greek for these speakers to transmit their knowledge through immersion (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). This led to ancient Greek being taught as a dead language in Western Europe. Many scholars could still actively speak Latin as a spoken language, but ancient Greek would often be learned through instruction in Latin (Rico & Pedicone, 2022; Tunberg, 2022).

Ancient Greek and Latin Language Pedagogy in the 17th and 18th Centuries. During the 17th and 18th centuries, although the Romance languages were replacing Latin, it was still very common for many countries like Finland, the Netherlands, and Sweden, to continue to use Latin as the language of administration, education, and literature (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Also, the impact of Jesuit schools on the study of Latin and Greek cannot be overlooked during this period as well. The standard Jesuit school curriculum required Latin classes in the morning and ancient Greek classes in the afternoon (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). In fact, Latin was the primary language of all subjects being taught in Jesuit schools (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Despite these great options for learning Latin through immersion, there was no corresponding option for learners of ancient Greek. This is evidenced by the fact that the majority of ancient Greek grammar books were written in Latin, and instruction was given mostly in Latin or the common vernacular (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Latin's place as the primary classical language was clear by this time.

Following the trajectory from the Renaissance, there is no evidence that ancient Greek instruction was actually given in the target language of ancient Greek at this time (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Also, at this time, ancient Greek grammars started to be written in common vernaculars like French and English (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). The common teaching methods of this time primarily revolved around direct instruction regarding ancient Greek grammar (in Latin or common vernaculars), with some translation into Latin (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). This was the beginning of what would be called the GTM in the study of the ancient Greek language (Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

Ancient Greek and Latin Language Pedagogy from the 19th Century to the Present. The trend towards GTM only continued to grow throughout the 19th Century (Rico & Pedicone,

2022). Despite this growth of GTM, Latin continued to be spoken in small circles of people (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). However, during this time ancient Greek was still primarily taught in the common vernacular and ancient Greek grammars began to take the shape that is seen today in most GTM textbooks (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). These textbooks would be written in a common vernacular and focus on the memorization of morphological charts (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). One pedagogical improvement in these new textbooks would be that most chapters would begin with a short section of easy ancient Greek and include a short vocabulary at the end of the chapter for reference (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Despite these pedagogical improvements, the overall increased focus on the memorization of grammar rules led to a 150-year decline in the presence of Latin and ancient Greek in Western society (Manning, 2021; Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Latin and ancient Greek began to be seen as languages for academics and scholars instead of as common knowledge that any educated person would have learned in school (Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

During the late 20th century, there began to be a revival among ancient Greek students and teachers who wanted to go back to how ancient Greek was taught before the GTM (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Pioneers, such as Randal Buth and Christophe Rico, were inspired by modern SLA research, which found that language acquisition did not easily come through the GTM, but rather through the spoken use of the language (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). They began taking modern SLA techniques and applying them to the teaching of ancient Greek successfully (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Since there have always been small circles of Latin speakers, it is estimated that there are a few thousand people in the world who can hold a conversation in Latin and more beyond that who could follow a lecture given in Latin (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Since ancient Greek ceased to be spoken, except in rare exceptions, it is estimated that there are only about 100

people who could hold an extended conversation in ancient Greek (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). However, this community is starting to rapidly grow into an international movement because of the rise of the use of the internet and video conferencing (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Modern innovations, such as Zoom, have given people who want to learn to speak ancient Greek the ability to practice speaking and listening on the internet with other speakers of ancient Greek who might live on the other side of the world (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). Christophe Rico argues that these modern trends towards spoken ancient languages “point to the beginning of a renewal of classic studies in the present day, fostered by research on Second Language Acquisition, advancing digital technologies, and a growing interest among people worldwide to learn, speak, and teach ancient languages” (Hill, 2021; Rico & Pedicone, 2022, lxxix).

Most modern linguists agree that the primary method of teaching contemporary/modern languages should have a solid communicative component (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). This makes sense because the primary reason for learning a modern language is usually being able to communicate with other speakers of that language actively. However, when it comes to languages that no longer have living native speakers, the reason for learning an L2 changes. Examples of these languages include ancient Greek, Latin, Hebrew, Egyptian, Syriac, Aramaic, etc.

The reason for learning the L2 shifts from active communication to being able to read and understand ancient texts that were written by native speakers of that language. Therefore, some GTM scholars have argued that since the goal of learning an ancient language is not active communication, then active communication should not be a part of learning that ancient language (Buth & Alley, 2022). Hence, since primary goal of learning an ancient language is to

be able to read and translate, then courses in these ancient languages should primarily focus on reading and translating.

However, some linguists today argue that although active communication is not a goal of learning an ancient language, it is the best method for acquiring any language, including ancient languages (Buth & Alley, 2022). Therefore, students who actively communicate in an L2 become better communicators in the language and better readers and translators of the text. Many would also argue that they would be better readers and translators of ancient texts than those who learn ancient languages only through reading and translation (Hill, 2022).

Methods for Teaching Ancient Greek

For centuries ancient Greek has been one of the essentials of formal education. A person was not considered educated without at least a basic understanding of ancient Greek and Latin (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). This means that there is a long track record for the teaching of ancient Greek throughout history. When ancient Greek was still actively spoken and the language still resembled ancient Greek in the way that modern English might resemble the early modern English of the King James Bible, ancient Greek was still taught as a living language that was to be spoken and read (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). However, after Erasmus in the 1500s it began to be almost exclusively taught through the GTM (Miller & Black, 2019; Rico & Pedicone, 2022). The GTM was the primary method of teaching most foreign languages in the United States until the early 1900s when it was abandoned for living language approaches that focuses more on communication and active speaking of the language (Manning, 2021; Ponniah, 2010). Today, the primary method of teaching ancient Greek is GTM although there is a growing body of scholars and students who are exploring the living language approach as a more effective method of teaching ancient Greek (Miller & Black, 2019; Ponniah, 2010; Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

Grammar-Translation Method (GTM)

When it comes to the teaching of ancient languages, the Grammar Translation Method (GTM) is often referred to as the “classical” or “traditional method” because this method has been the primary method for how the languages have been taught for almost 500 years (Miller & Black, 2019). GTM is the method by which an instructor teaches a language through the rote memorization of grammar rules, declensions, and conjugations with the intent of being able to translate from the target language into the native language (Larsen-Freeman & Anderson, 2018; Miller & Black, 2019). The basic idea behind the GTM is that students learn a new language by focusing on learning the grammar of that target language (Larsen-Freeman & Anderson, 2018). This was the primary method of teaching foreign languages in the United States military until World War II when it was replaced with a more communicative approach that is still used today (Manning, 2021; Murphy & Hastings, 2006; Rahman, 2021). This has left the GTM to primarily be used for teaching classical languages today. Some hallmarks of the GTM today are as follows:

- Instruction is given almost entirely in the student’s native language, with very little actual use by the student or teacher.
- The teacher is the main actor in the classroom.
- Students spend very little time interacting with each other and rarely (if ever) interact in the language being learned.
- Students practice the language inside and outside of the classroom through the memorization of grammar rules and translation into their native language.
- Student knowledge of the language is primarily assessed through their ability to translate from the target language to their native language and their ability to be able to note

specific grammar rules, declensions, and conjugations (Larsen-Freeman & Anderson, 2018).

Some of the most popular textbooks for teaching ancient Greek today utilize GTM, including *The Basics of Biblical Greek*, *Learn to Read New Testament Greek*, *Beginning with New Testament Greek*, and *Going Deeper with New Testament Greek* (Black, 2022; Merkle & Plummer, 2020a, 2020b; Mounce, 2019).

Communitive “Living Language” Methods

The communitive “living language” method or Communicative Language Teaching (CLT) is part of the linguistic methodology known as Second Language Acquisition (SLA) (Miller & Black, 2019). This method is based on the fundamental idea that languages are best learned through the actual use of the target language through conversation (Buth, 2017; Halcomb & Day, 2013). Although this has become the standard way that modern languages are taught, it is still relatively new in the contemporary teaching of ancient Greek (Rico & Pedicone, 2022).

Some hallmarks of CLT today are as follows:

- Instruction is given almost entirely in the target language.
- The student is the main actor in the classroom and the teacher is only there to facilitate the learning.
- Students spend most of their time interacting with each other in the target language.
- Students practice the language inside and outside of the classroom through the conversation exercises, oral presentations, small group projects, and games.
- Student knowledge of the language is primarily assessed through their ability to use the target language in a conversational way (Miller & Black, 2019).

Other Various Methods of Teaching Ancient Greek

There have been various other methods of teaching ancient Greek, including usage-based Greek, singing Greek, tools-based Greek, practically-based Greek, and Greek helps (Miller & Black, 2019). However, these approaches are variations of the GTM. The usage-based approach focuses on teaching the grammar points and vocabulary that are the most frequently found in ancient Greek, especially in the New Testament Greek text (Miller & Black, 2019). The idea behind this approach is that students do not need to spend much time focusing on grammar or vocabulary if it is not common in the New Testament Greek text (Miller & Black, 2019). This would also mean that students using this approach would never learn simple things that learners of most languages always learn early, like counting to ten or knowing the word for “ball” or “cat.”

The tools-based approach to learning Ancient Greek does not primarily focus on teaching ancient Greek, but on how to use the available technological tools commonly available today to interpret the Greek text (Miller & Black, 2019). Technology has allowed for many ancient Greek texts to be completely online with each word easily searchable with in-depth information regarding each individual usage (Miller & Black, 2019). As a result, many individuals who learned ancient Greek using the GTM in college or seminary struggle to retain or remember what they learned and end up forgetting a large amount of what they learned (Merkle & Plummer, 2017; Miller & Black, 2019). Some scholars have argued that the focus should be on teaching students how to use online tools so that when they lose most of their L2 knowledge, they would still be able to decently use online tools to dig into the ancient Greek texts with some confidence (Miller & Black, 2019).

One more approach is practically-based Greek. This approach is designed for students who want to have some knowledge of the ancient Greek language to help them with word studies in the Bible but do not necessarily want a full knowledge of the language (Miller & Black, 2019). The most popular book that uses this approach is Mounce's *Greek for the Rest of Us*, which is designed to give basic knowledge of the ancient Greek language so that the average person can more easily understand a commentary or footnote that makes a point based on the ancient Greek text (Miller & Black, 2019; Mounce, 2022). Students who use this method do not acquire the ancient Greek language but instead gain a basic working knowledge of how the language works (Miller & Black, 2019).

What is the Goal of Teaching an Ancient Language?

Most ancient language teachers would argue that the goal of any ancient language course is for students to learn, know, and read in the target ancient language (Larsen-Freeman & Anderson, 2018; Miller & Black, 2019; Streett, 2021). When it comes to the teaching of modern languages, the goal is also to learn, know and read (Streett, 2021; Venditti, 2021). However, the ways modern language teachers define these three terms are very different than how ancient language teachers usually define them (Streett, 2021). In a modern language classroom where students are learning German, it is expected that students should be able to show competency in the four major activities of language (listening, speaking, reading, and writing in German) (Streett, 2021). In GTM classrooms, reading is the only activity that is usually attempted (Streett, 2021).

Since there are no native speakers of ancient languages, it is understandable that there is a particular emphasis given to reading ancient texts as more important than being able to speak and communicate in the target language (Streett, 2021). Most language teachers who advocate for

CLT in teaching ancient languages would also agree that the primary goal of teaching ancient languages is for students to read ancient texts fluently (Streett, 2021; Venditti, 2021). However, they would also argue that students must be able to perform all four tasks of language to gain true reading fluency (Buth & Alley, 2022; Streett, 2021).

When advocates of GTM talk about “reading” they mean something very different than teachers who use CLT as their primary teaching method (Miller & Black, 2019; Streett, 2021). When CLT teachers of ancient and modern languages talk about reading as a goal, they mean that students read at a normal rate of speed and comprehend the text in the actual target language itself (Streett, 2021). This means that when a student of German is reading a German newspaper, they should be able to read at a normal reading speed all while comprehending the messages in German without having to translate the German back into their native language first (Streett, 2021). Advocates of CLT in the teaching of ancient languages would expect that language learners would be able to read and comprehend in their ancient target language (Lloyd, 2021; Streett, 2021).

When most GTM teachers describe “reading” as the primary goal, they usually mean something very different (Miller & Black, 2019). They often mean translating the text through a long, slow, and tedious process in which almost every word or morphological form in the target language is looked up in a lexicon or chart (Streett, 2021). At no point in time do GTM students communicate or think in the target language (Streett, 2021). They simply look at each individual word in the text, recall an English gloss and quickly translate the word into its closest English equivalent (Streett, 2021). This might more accurately be called quick translating instead of reading because the text is not being comprehended in the target language (Streett, 2021). This quick translation process is so tedious that many students quit learning ancient languages

because they are told they do not have the skills to learn them (Miller & Black, 2019; Streett, 2021). This has even been told to students who have already mastered multiple modern languages (Buth & Alley, 2022; Streett, 2021).

For the purposes of this study, it is important to note that most ancient language teachers (both GTM and CLT) agree that the main goal of learning an ancient language is to be able to read an ancient text (Bailey, 2021). However, the disagreement is about how reading fluency is achieved. GTM advocates argue that the GTM is the best method for learning how to read and CLT advocates argue that true reading proficiency only comes when students can communicate actively in the language (Streett, 2021).

The definition of reading for the purposes of this study falls in line with the common definitions that are used in the teaching of modern languages, which is for students to be able to read at a reasonable rate and comprehend what is being read in the target language without having to constantly rely on a lexicon or morphological chart (Streett, 2021). Streett, (2021) notes that “true reading (as opposed to translation into one’s first language in order to understand) can only occur, at a neurological level, if the reader has already internalized the language in an oral-aural form” (p. 267) This means that research suggests that unless a basic level of speaking and listening ability is achieved in the target language students of any language may never be able to think in the language and thus enjoy actual reading fluency (Streett, 2021).

Pedagogical Benefits and Problems of CLT and GTM in Ancient Language Teaching

There is no such thing as a perfect language-teaching pedagogy. Therefore, every attempt to create a language pedagogy will have champions and opponents. Each pedagogy will have benefits and problems. First, this section will briefly examine the problems and benefits of GTM

teaching methods for teaching ancient Greek. Second, this section will look at the problems and benefits of CLT methods for teaching ancient Greek.

Pedagogical Problems of GTM in Ancient Language Teaching. Many Latin and ancient Greek teachers today would agree that these languages have not been taught with great success over the past several centuries (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). For well over 500 years, the GTM has existed, and for the past 100 years, has been the primary mode of teaching Latin and ancient Greek (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). The first major problem pointed out about the use of GTM in teaching ancient languages is that it has been rejected for teaching modern languages (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). In fact, some scholars have noted that GTM no longer has serious advocates among SLA researchers (Richards & Rodgers, 2001). Eyckmans et al. (2016) have went even further and have argued that the GTM has been thoroughly discredited in the field of SLA. Although many SLA scholars would argue that explicit grammar instruction is valuable in language teaching, they would also argue that it should take up only a very small percentage of instruction (at most 25%) (Nation, 2007; Nation & Yamamoto, 2012).

Second, CLT proponents argue that for the first 1000 years after Latin ceased to be a mother tongue, there was far more success in teaching the language than there is today because it was primarily taught through spoken immersion (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). In fact, this success is clearly seen because it was common during this period for people with ordinary intelligence to learn to read, write, and speak Latin fluently (Rico & Pedicone, 2022). CLT proponents would argue that Latin and ancient Greek are often seen as challenging languages that only brilliant people can learn. However, these proponents would attribute this to how the language is primarily taught today, not because the languages are challenging in and of themselves (Rico & Pedicone, 2022)

Pedagogical Benefits of GTM in Ancient Language Teaching. The biggest benefit of using the GTM is that students are forced to learn the grammar and structure of the language. Most speakers of any language cannot explain how their language works and operates. The GTM forces students to focus on how language operates and functions to be able to translate the text into their native language. This has benefits when a student is faced with a word that they are not familiar with. If they have a grasp of the grammar, they can make educated guesses about how the word is functioning in the sentence. Second, it keeps the focus only on the actual words that are used in ancient texts, and students only use the words in the way they were used in ancient times.

Pedagogical Problems of CLT in Ancient Language Teaching. Some proponents of teaching ancient Greek through the GTM do not think there is a decline in the teaching of ancient Greek because of the GTM (Plummer, 2019). These proponents of GTM would argue that there are several reasons that ancient languages like Latin and ancient Greek should be taught using the GTM. First, they would argue that the primary reason for learning an ancient language is not to be able to communicate in the L2, but rather to be able to read ancient documents (Buth & Alley, 2022). They would argue that the GTM teaches people how to read the languages, which is enough for their purposes (Buth & Alley, 2022).

Another problem with using CLT in the teaching of ancient languages is that speaking communicatively in a language today requires the use of modern words that describe new people, places, things, and concepts that did not exist in ancient languages. There are no ancient Greek words for “airplane,” “train,” “telephone,” “Twitter,” etc. This is a problem with learning to use a language communicatively because it can be difficult to use an ancient language to describe these new objects, concepts, or ideas. In response to this criticism, one school of

thought is that students of an ancient language should use modern words when they need to describe a new concept that did not exist when the ancient language was in existence. For instance, the Polis Institute uses the modern Greek word for “telephone” when they need to talk about a telephone (Rico, 2020). The problem with this practice is that students are mixing modern and ancient languages, which could lead to confusion because some words that exist in ancient Greek and modern Greek have different meanings.

Another school of thought argues that instead of using modern Greek words, speakers should use the ancient words available in creative ways that describe what they are talking about. The problem with this method is that students are using ancient words and concepts in a way that would not be accurate to how they were used in the past. These problems have led many teachers of ancient languages to argue that strict adherence to ancient language usage should be adhered to, which can be done with the GTM.

One final problem with using CLT to teach ancient languages can be referred to as institutional inertia or “lock-in” (Buth & Alley, 2022; Plummer, 2021). Most institutions that teach ancient languages use the GTM. This means that if a teacher wants to start using CLT methods in the classroom, it could cause problems with teachers that use the GTM at higher-level language classes (Buth & Alley, 2022). These institutions and teachers will often request that teachers use the GTM even if they learned or preferred to use CLT methods (Buth & Alley, 2022). This is so that all the teachers are on the same page in the institution (Buth & Alley, 2022). Having both approaches in the same institution would cause difficulty if an ancient Greek 101 teacher taught using the GTM and an ancient Greek 201 teacher taught using CLT methods. GTM and CLT are such different pedagogical approaches to teaching ancient languages that it is

difficult for an institution to have a single program that utilizes both. One or the other would have to be dominant.

Pedagogical Benefits of CLT in Ancient Language Teaching. The most sighted reason for using CLT in teaching ancient languages is that most modern SLA research points to this as far superior to GTM (Buth & Alley, 2022). The American Council on the Teaching of Foreign Languages (ACTFL) has stated that foreign language courses should utilize the target language as exclusively as possible, at least 90% or more (Buth & Alley, 2022). Keeping in line with modern research, CLT argues that language learners should spend the majority of their time actually using the ancient language for communication in and out of the classroom (Buth & Alley, 2022). This is opposed to the GTM, which does not require students to meaningfully use the target language for communication at all.

Buth and Alley (2022) note that there are four major benefits that come from teaching ancient languages using CLT methods. First, CLT methods “widen the gate.” Buth and Alley note that learning a language through the GTM is very difficult and can cause many people to quit. To support this, they give the anecdotal example of a student that they had when they were teaching with the Biblical Language Center (BLC), which is a program that teaches the biblical languages using CLT methods (Buth & Alley, 2022). This student had taken and failed beginning Hebrew from a university in the United States that uses the GTM. This university also told the student that they did not think that this student had the attributes to learn Hebrew (Buth & Alley, 2022). During the summer, this student took a 6-week intensive in biblical Hebrew from BLC and then returned to the United States and went back to the same United States university to enroll in further Hebrew courses. A teacher at this university contacted BLC and asked what they did because they could not understand how this student who failed Hebrew at

their university made so much progress in such a short time (Buth & Alley, 2022). This same professor at this university in the United States came and sat in on a BLC intermediate course that was using CLT and was so impressed that he recommended that all future Hebrew professors should sit through classes like this before they begin teaching (Buth & Alley, 2022). In this example, the CLT provided an opportunity for a student who would have otherwise been considered “not good enough” the opportunity to learn biblical Hebrew. This would suggest that CLT widens the gate and allows more people to attain success when they want to learn ancient languages (Buth & Alley, 2022).

The second benefit is that CLT raises the bar for language learners. GTM only requires that students have an intimate knowledge of ancient Greek grammar (Buth & Alley, 2022). CLT requires that students internalize the language to such a point that they can confidently use the language for real communication (Buth & Alley, 2022). Since CLT methods, require students to internalize the language, it means that students have greater control of the language. This higher control leads to the third major benefit which is greater efficiency in use of the language (Buth & Alley, 2022). One of the hardest parts of learning languages using the GTM is the memorization of paradigms of various grammatical forms. When a student uses CLT methods to learn ancient Greek, these forms are not memorized through rote memorization, but rather they are internalized through actual communication in the language (Buth & Alley, 2022). This means that language learners can more easily internalize grammatical forms and acquire vocabulary more rapidly (Buth & Alley, 2022).

The final benefit is that CLT allows students of ancient languages to have a higher reading fluency than students who learn through the GTM (Buth & Alley, 2022). Advocates of GTM often argue that communication in the language is not useful if your only goal is to read

ancient texts (Buth & Alley, 2022). However, studies have shown that reading comprehension requires high levels of fluency in a language (Buth & Alley, 2022). When most GTM teachers speak of reading the text, they usually mean quickly translating each word into their native language (Buth & Alley, 2022). They do not actually comprehend the text in ancient Greek; they quick-translate each word into their native language in order to comprehend what they are reading (Reinhard, 2022). CLT requires that students read and comprehend the meaning of the text in the actual ancient language. However, attaining this kind of reading fluency in any language requires extensive and rapid use of a language, which only CLT methods teach (Buth & Alley, 2022).

Krashen's Theory of Second Language Acquisition and Ancient Greek Language Pedagogy

Second Language Acquisition (SLA) is the learning of a second language in addition to one's native language. This is a modern field of study and Stephen Krashen has developed five hypotheses that make up his modern theory of SLA (Dewaele et al., 2018; Hawkins, 2019; Khan & Takkac, 2021; Soriano & Alonso, 2020; Tahiri, 2020; Viju, 2015; Wiyono et al., 2017).

Acquisition-Learning Hypothesis

The acquisition-learning hypothesis is the most fundamental of the five and claims that humans have an acquired system and learned system of learning a foreign language (Krashen, 1981, 2013). This hypothesis states that there are two ways in which people develop competence in a second language, the acquired system and the learned system (Krashen, 1981). The acquired system is a subconscious process of language acquisition that happens when children learn their first language (Krashen, 1981, 2013). This system does not rely on people actively learning grammar rules because they are not consciously aware that they are acquiring a language (Krashen, 1981). They simply acquire the language with only a conscious knowledge that they

are using the language for communication (Krashen, 1981). This results in a language speaker who is not often aware of specific grammar rules, but instead has developed an intuition about the correctness of proper grammar based on what “sounds” or “feels” right (Krashen, 1981). This type of language acquisition is most common in a person’s acquisition of their native language and is why most native speakers can use their language at a high level without having in-depth knowledge about grammar (Krashen, 1981, 2013).

On the other hand, the learned system is a structured process by which person learns a second language through the active awareness of and learning of grammar rules (Krashen, 1981, 2013; Lichtman & VanPatten, 2021). This type of language learning results in explicit knowledge about a language, which will, in turn, help them to use the language (Krashen, 1981). Many scholars have assumed that only children can acquire a language and adults can only learn a language (Krashen, 1981). Krashen argues that the acquisition-learning hypothesis claims that adults also have a similar capacity to acquire languages, even if they would not be able to pick up native-like levels of mastery in a second language. In reference to learning ancient Greek, there is an ongoing debate between ancient Greek language teachers that argues that the GMT only promotes the learning system but does not address the acquired system (Miller & Black, 2019).

Natural Order Hypothesis

Finally, the natural order hypothesis argues that second-language acquisition follows a natural and predictable order in which specific grammatical skills are learned early on, and others are learned later (Krashen, 1981). This hypothesis claims that people who acquire languages tend to acquire certain types of grammatical structures early and others later (Krashen, 1981). Since English is the current *lingua franca*, it has been studied more than any other

language when it comes to this hypothesis (Krashen, 1981). Research into native English-speaking children has shown that there is a general order in which children pick up a language. On the one hand, children tend to pick up “ing” words and the addition of an “s” to make a word plural early. On the other hand, children tend to pick up “ ’s ” as a means of showing possession and the third person singular use of “s” (ie. “he lives in New York”) later in the order (Krashen, 1981). It is striking that further research has shown that children and adults who acquire a second language also learn the language in a natural order; however, the order is always different than their first language (Krashen, 1981). Ultimately Krashen does not argue that language curricula need to be changed to directly match the natural order that languages are generally acquired, but to simply be aware that students tend to acquire languages in a particular order.

In reference to learning ancient Greek, this hypothesis addresses the order in which ancient Greek should be learned if there were still native speakers who spoke ancient Greek from childhood. Proponents of the GMT have various opinions over how the grammar of the language should be introduced to the student. However, the proponents of CLT method would argue that language learners need to learn through speaking and would start with verbal commands like a child would and then would progress from there (Miller & Black, 2019). This method is most clearly seen in CLT ancient Greek textbooks like Christophe Rico’s *Polis: Speaking Ancient Greek as a Living Language* (Rico, 2020). This method also does not focus on explaining the grammar rules in depth until later in the learning process (Rico & Kopf, 2021).

Monitor Hypothesis

The monitor hypothesis focuses on the relationship between the acquired system and the learned system. Krashen (1981) argues that language learners use the learned system as a check and editor/monitor on what has already been acquired through the acquired system. The learned

system from the acquisition-learning hypothesis focuses on the conscious learning of grammar rules that can be used to analyze and correct language usage (Krashen, 1981). The monitor hypothesis argues that when a language learner has consciously learned grammar rules in a target language and produces the target language through speaking or writing that the editor (ie. their knowledge of grammar rules) will monitor their language and help them correct their mistakes (Krashen, 1981).

Research has shown that language learners can effectively use the monitor only when certain conditions are met: time, focus on form, and knowing the rule (Krashen, 1981). Krashen notes that in order for the monitor to effectively work, a language learner would need sufficient time to actively think about the language that they are producing. This time commitment can be easily met when the language production is writing, however, when it comes to conversational speech overuse of the monitor, through over-correction, can lead to hesitant speech and inattention to a conversational partner (Krashen, 1981). The second condition is the focus on form. The extra need of time is for the purpose of being able to focus on the correctness of the forms that are being used during writing or speaking (Krashen, 1981). Krashen argues that the more formidable condition is knowing the rule. All languages are complex and even the vast majority of native speakers do not know all the grammar rules of a given language (Krashen, 1981). This means that if a student does not actively know a grammar rule, they cannot effectively use their learned system to monitor their speech if they do not know a specific grammar rule. It is not easy to meet all of these conditions, and Krashen states that it takes a real discrete-point grammar-type test for all three conditions of monitor usage to be met.

There can be three types of monitor users: the over-user, under-user, and optimal user (Krashen, 1981). The over-user is a language learner who constantly monitors their language

output which results in inattentiveness to conversational partners and hesitant speaking (Krashen, 1981). The under-user is a language learner who either does not consciously use their learned system to memorize grammar rules or who does not prefer to consciously think about grammar rules while producing language (Krashen, 1981). Many of these language learners have focused primarily on the acquired system and simply rely on a “feel” for correctness when they speak (Krashen, 1981). This is the same thing that speakers do when they produce their native language. Native speakers, even if they know the grammar rules, primarily rely on the “feel” of how correct their language production sounds rather than on the specifics of a grammar rule (Krashen, 1981).

Optimal monitor use should be the pedagogical goal (Krashen, 1981). This type of language learner has learned to use the monitor when it is appropriate while not letting it interfere with everyday conversation (Krashen, 1981). These learners simply use the learned system as a monitor to supplement their competence (Krashen, 1981). Interestingly, Krashen has found that some optimal users who have not yet acquired their target language to the point where they are error-free during active conversation can still mimic native-level production when writing. This is because they have the time to monitor their language production.

In reference to learning ancient Greek, this hypothesis addresses how a language learner monitors their learning. The GTM provides a way for students to monitor their learning through the use of written text and teacher instruction (Miller & Black, 2019). Since GTM is overly designed to focus on the learning of grammar rules with no acquisition, it tends to lead to overuse of the monitor system. Krashen (1981) argues that in the monitor hypothesis, although the learned system is used, the acquired system is central while the learned system is peripheral. CLT methods provide opportunities for students to acquire a language through input and output

(Krashen, 1981). However, active knowledge of grammar rules, through the learned system, would be of great benefit in helping language learners master ancient Greek, especially since there are no native speakers of ancient Greek alive and current active speakers of ancient Greek are rare.

Comprehensible Input Hypothesis

Krashen (1981) argues that the comprehensible input hypothesis attempts to answer the most important and crucial questions in the field of linguistics which is, “how do people acquire languages?” Assuming that the monitor hypothesis is correct that acquisition is central, and that learning is more peripheral, then the goal of language teaching should be to encourage acquisition (Krashen, 1981). The input hypothesis argues that for a person to acquire a second language they must receive comprehensible input in a “natural order” that is just beyond their current level of linguistic competence (Krashen, 1981).

Assuming that the natural order hypothesis is correct, then the question remains as to how a language learner moves from one stage of fluency to another. How does this acquisition take place? The comprehensible input hypothesis maintains that language is acquired through receiving input of a second language at a level that is “just a little beyond” their current level of fluency (Krashen, 1981). This allows for language learners to use the fluency that they have already acquired to get “the gist” of the new information and it helps language learners focus on the meaning of the new information rather than the structures of the language.

The comprehensible input hypothesis can be stated fully as such:

1. The input hypothesis relates to acquisition, not learning.

2. Language acquisition occurs when language learners understand language that contains structures beyond their current level of fluency. This is done with the help of context or extra-linguistic information.
3. Successful communication is achieved when input is understood (comprehensible) and there is enough of it.
4. In the end, the ability to produce a second language emerges and is not taught directly (Krashen, 1981)

In reference to learning ancient Greek, the GTM does not offer a lot of options when it comes to actual input of the language. In fact, Krashen notes that the GTM method of focusing on the learning of structures first runs opposite to the comprehensible input hypothesis. Instead of focusing on structures, this comprehensible input hypothesis states that languages are acquired by “going for the meaning” first, and then later structures are acquired (Krashen, 1981). Proponents of CLT, along with Krashen, argue that it is important for students to hear and receive comprehensible input on a regular basis (Miller & Black, 2019).

Affective Filter Hypothesis

The affective filter hypothesis focuses on the affective variables that are involved in second language acquisition. This hypothesis states that student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety play an essential role in a language learner’s ability to acquire a second language (Krashen, 1981). The affective filters (motivation, self-efficacy, self-esteem, and low debilitating anxiety) are not directly a part of second language acquisition, but instead they correlate with the amount of input that students will seek out (Krashen, 1981). This means that language learners who have a high or strong affective filter and do not have attitudes that are optimal for second language acquisition will not be able to fully internalize the language

to the part of the brain that is responsible for language acquisition (Krashen, 1981). The language learners who have this strong affective filter may even receive that same comprehensible input that other language learners receive, but because of the strong affective filter, it will not reach the language learning device, which is the part of the brain where language acquisition takes place (Krashen, 2013). On the other hand, students who have low or weak affective filters and have an attitude optimal for second language acquisition will seek out and obtain more comprehensible input. Comprehensible input is the primary way that languages are acquired, but there is a correlation between affective filters and the amount of comprehensible input that language learners will receive (Krashen, 1981).

It is clear that student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety play a major role in whether or not a student is successful in modern language acquisition. Many students of ancient languages like Ancient Greek, Latin, and Hebrew often comment that these languages are far more difficult to learn than modern languages. If this is the case, then it is possible that student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety play an even more significant role in the learning of any language, including ancient languages. Many advocates of CLT argue that the use of GTM causes these languages to seem more difficult than they really are. Although it is one of the primary jobs of the language instructor to help students address student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety, it would be essential to analyze the differences that might appear in the affective filter among ancient Greek students in both GTM and CLT classrooms.

Motivation and Second Language Acquisition. Motivation is defined as the desire and driving force of a language learner to learn a second language and is one of the main affective factors that affect a language learner's ability to acquire a second language (Ni, 2012; Wang &

Wu, 2020). Motivation is the internal drive that encourages people to take action towards acquiring a second language (Wang & Wu, 2020). Research has shown that language learners who have high motivation levels generally do better in second language acquisition as compared to language learners who have low levels of motivation (Krashen, 1981).

Motivation is generally divided into two different categories: integrative motivation and instrumental motivation (Wang & Wu, 2020). Integrative motivation refers to the motivation that language learners must have to take action toward integrating themselves into the community and social life of people who speak the second language that they are trying to acquire (Wang & Wu, 2020). This type of motivation focuses on the language learners' interest level regarding actual integration into the community and social life of those who speak their target language (Wang & Wu, 2020).

Instrumental motivation refers to the language learners' desire to use the target language as a tool to learn the language (Wang & Wu, 2020). Instrumental motivation is extremely important for learning a second language because it revolves around the language learner's willingness to use the target language for the purpose of integrating themselves into the community of speakers. They have a strong desire to use the target language as a tool by which they learn to communicate through active use of the target language. This would closely align with the goals of the CLT approach to SLA, which focuses on the actual use of the target language as a method of learning the language (Krashen, 1981). This is opposed to GTM, which focuses on the use of a language learner's native language as the primary tool for learning a target language (Richards & Rodgers, 2001). Integrative and instrumental motivational factors are essential in SLA because language learners who have a generally positive attitude and strong interest in the target language and native speakers will be more willing to learn about the target

language (Ni, 2012; Wang & Wu, 2020). On the other hand, language learners who have negative attitudes towards both the target language and native speakers will psychologically resist affections and have a more difficult time acquiring the target language (Ni, 2012; Wang & Wu, 2020).

Self-Efficacy/Self-Confidence and Second Language Acquisition. Self-efficacy is another significant affective factor when it comes to a language learner's ability to acquire a second language (Ni, 2012; Wang & Wu, 2020). Research has shown that language learners who have high self-efficacy levels and a good self-image tend to do better in second language acquisition (Krashen, 1981). This is because language learners who have low self-efficacy tend to be fearful and timid, which results in their reluctance to express opinions or even be able to utter a single meaningful sentence in a language class (Ni, 2012).

Overall, self-efficacy is important for language acquisition because students who have high self-confidence are willing to try new learning, willing to take risks, and rarely give up (Ni, 2012). First, language learning is an inherently risky endeavor because students must be willing to take the risk of openly speaking to others in the target language. This can be extremely terrifying because language learners know that they will be making mistakes that are evident to native or fluent speakers. Second, language learning is a long process that takes years. This means that language learners must be willing to persevere even during the times when it seems like they are plateauing.

Research has shown that self-efficacy is greatly affected by the language teacher (Wang & Wu, 2020). Although students have varying levels of self-efficacy naturally, it is one of the primary roles of the language teacher to foster an environment where students build confidence in the target language (Wang & Wu, 2020). Language teachers should take into account the

individual personalities and self-confidence levels of their students in CLT classrooms because students who have varying levels of self-confidence will need to be addressed in different ways (Wang & Wu, 2020). For instance, an introverted language learner with low self-confidence would need to be consistently encouraged to speak in the target language in class because they might not take the initiative to do so. They might also need to be corrected privately instead of publicly because correcting them in a negative way will negatively affect their self-efficacy levels (Wang & Wu, 2020). Assuming that comprehensible input is the only way that language is acquired, teachers have a great responsibility to develop and foster high self-efficacy in the students so that they can receive the most amount of comprehensible input which often comes from active communication in the target language (Krashen, 1981; Wang & Wu, 2020).

Anxiety and Second Language Acquisition. Anxiety is another significant affective factor when it comes to a language learner's ability to acquire a second language (Ni, 2012; Wang & Wu, 2020). This is because anxiety is a prominent and persuasive emotion. This study looked at two aspects of anxiety in language learning, facilitating anxiety and debilitating anxiety. Facilitating anxiety in language learning refers to a level of anxiety that can be beneficial for language learners as it can motivate them to study and improve their language skills. Debilitating anxiety, on the other hand, refers to a level of anxiety that is excessive and interferes with the ability to learn and use the language effectively.

According to a study by MacIntyre and Gardner (1991), cited in "Anxiety and second language learning: Toward a theoretical clarification" by Horwitz, et al. (1986), students who experience a moderate level of anxiety tend to perform better on language tests than those who experience no anxiety or high levels of anxiety. Another study by Horwitz, et al. (1986) found that students who experience debilitating anxiety in language learning may have negative

attitudes toward the language and the culture associated with it and may also have difficulties with language tasks that involve communication or social interactions. It is important to note that the relationship between anxiety and language learning is complex and can vary depending on the individual and the specific situation (Horwitz, et al., 1986; MacIntyre & Gardner, 1991). However, it's important for language teachers to create an environment that helps to reduce debilitating anxiety and increase facilitating anxiety for students.

Language anxiety is a significant affective filter regardless of whether a learning environment is formal or informal. On one hand, students with debilitating anxiety will be more fearful, nervous, and reluctant to cooperate with teachers and fellow language learners (Ni, 2012; Wang & Wu, 2020). This leads to these students not being able to focus on the learning objectives, which in turn leads to a sense of time being wasted (Ni, 2012; Wang & Wu, 2020). This leads to language learners often fleeing the learning task, which leads to an inability to acquire the target language (Ni, 2012; Wang & Wu, 2020). The final result is the language learner not acquiring the target language, which can lead to a language learner having more debilitating anxiety than they had at the beginning (Ni, 2012; Wang & Wu, 2020). On the other hand, students with a moderate amount of facilitating anxiety can have an increased sense of urgency that will lead them to be more motivated to study and develop their language learning skills (Horwitz, et al., 1986; MacIntyre & Gardner, 1989).

Language anxiety can be divided into three kinds: trait anxiety, state anxiety, and situation-specific anxiety (Ni, 2012). In SLA research, situation-specific anxiety has seen a considerable amount of attention because this type of anxiety is aroused by very specific types of events or situations like public speaking, examinations, and class participation (Ni, 2012). Since public speaking, examinations, and class participation are fundamental to an SLA classroom, this

kind of anxiety is of primary importance for this study (Ni, 2012). Research has shown that language anxiety can manifest itself in these situations because students are routinely called upon to attempt to learn and actively communicate in a target language (Ni, 2012). Research has also shown that language learners with anxiety often compare themselves to other language learners and perceive themselves as being less proficient (Ni, 2012). As these language learners gain proficiency, debilitating anxiety decreases, and they feel that they are more able to compete with the proficiency levels of their fellow language learners (Ni, 2012).

Language Learning Experience and Second Language Acquisition. This study also measured the language learning experience of each participant. The language learning experience of each student can be greatly influenced by a variety of factors, including individual differences, motivation, anxiety, and teaching methods which are all relevant to the current study. Individual differences, such as prior language experience and cognitive abilities, can play a role in language learning success (Dornyei, 2005). Motivation, as discussed earlier, which refers to the reasons why a person chooses to learn a language and the level of effort they are willing to put into it, is also an important factor (Gardner & Lambert, 1972; Yang, et al., 2021). Anxiety, as discussed earlier, can have both positive (facilitating) and negative (debilitating) effects on language learning (Horwitz, et al., 1986; MacIntyre & Gardner, 1989). Effective teaching methods can also impact the language learning experience. For example, research has shown that task-based language teaching, which emphasizes using the target language to complete real-world tasks (CLT), can lead to improved language proficiency (Ellis, 2003). Overall, the language learning experience is influenced by a combination of individual differences, motivation, anxiety, and teaching methods. Effective teaching methods and reduced anxiety can lead to improved language proficiency (Ellis, 2003; Gardner & Lambert, 1972; Horwitz, et al., 1986).

Summary

Until as recently as 150 years ago, students were required to have knowledge of ancient Greek and Latin to be admitted to universities in the Western world. However, over the past several decades, the teaching of ancient languages has waned. Some say that it is because the ancient languages are no longer relevant. However, it is possible that it is not the relevance that has caused the decline in the learning of ancient languages, but the methods in which the languages are taught. For the past 500 years, ancient languages like ancient Greek and Latin have been taught with what is called the grammar-translation method (GTM). This method emphasizes the grammar rules of a language as the primary way one interacts with the target language. This means that students do not learn to speak the language, but to interpret the rules and then translate them into their native language. This is often an isolating form of education where language learners spend most of their time translating the text and interpreting it on their own. This was the dominant method for teaching all languages in the United States until the 1900s when modern language teachers abandoned this method because it was not effective. However, the use of the GTM has persisted in the teaching of ancient languages. Although most ancient Greek teachers still hold to the GTM, there is a growing group of social constructivist researchers and teachers who are exploring the use of modern second language acquisition techniques (SLA) for teaching ancient languages. These SLA theories have been shown to be effective in the teaching of modern languages; however, there is a gap in the research when it comes to the effects of these techniques on the affective filters of student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety in ancient Greek language learners. Some research has been done on ancient Greek teachers' perceptions (Miller & Black, 2019). However, there is a need to explore the student side of the research and look at student self-perceptions of these

various methods and their effect on student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety.

CHAPTER THREE: METHODS

Overview

The purpose of this quantitative, causal-comparative study was to determine if ancient Greek language programs that use communicative language teaching methods (CLT) produce different student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety scores than programs that primarily use the grammar-translation method (GTM) of teaching ancient Greek. This chapter begins by introducing the design of the study, including full definitions of all variables. The research questions and null hypotheses follow. The participants and setting, instrumentation, procedures, and data analysis plans are presented.

Design

This study used a quantitative, causal-comparative design because this research design entails observing and comparing naturally occurring groups without any manipulation of variables. Causal-comparative research is a type of nonexperimental investigation that seeks to identify cause-and-effect relationships by forming groups in which an independent categorical variable is absent or present (Gall et al., 2007). This type of nonexperimental investigation represents a valuable tool in situations where the direct manipulation of variables is not feasible or ethical (Gall et al., 2007). In order to assess for significant disparities or correlations between the groups with regard to variables of interest, data from various sources was gathered and analyzed. This design allows for the examination of potential cause-and-effect relationships in real-world settings without directly intervening or changing the variables being studied.

This type of design is appropriate for this study because it explores whether there is a causal relationship between student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety scores (dependent variables) and students who

learned ancient Greek with CLT (independent variable) versus students who learned ancient Greek primarily using the GTM. The *Grammar-Translate Method* is generally defined as the pedagogy where language is taught deductively through rote memorization of grammatical structures and vocabulary with the goal of being able to quickly translate a text into one's own native language (Fazal et al., 2016). *Communicative Language Teaching* - is generally defined as any language teaching method that intends to make communicative competence the main goal of the language teaching process (Natsir & Sanjaya, 2014). *Motivation* is generally defined as the student's desire to achieve proficiency in a language (Krashen, 1981). *Language Learning Experience* - is generally defined as the variety of factors and individual differences, including motivation, anxiety, teaching methods, prior language experience, and cognitive abilities that can play a role in language learning success (Dornyei, 2005). *Self-Efficacy* – is generally defined as an individual's belief in their ability to succeed in learning a second language (Dornyei & Skehan, 2003). According to Dornyei and Skehan (2003), self-efficacy can influence language learners' motivation, self-esteem, and overall success in acquiring a second language. *Anxiety* - is generally defined as a state of apprehension, nervousness, or worry that is specific to the language learning context and can interfere with an individual's ability to learn a second or foreign language (MacIntyre & Gardner, 1989).

Research Question

RQ1: Is there a difference between students using communicative language teaching vs. grammar-translation method on student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety in adult, university-level (accredited and nonaccredited) ancient Greek language programs?

Hypothesis

The null hypothesis for this study is:

H₀₁: There is no significant difference in student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety scores between ancient Greek language programs that use communicative language teaching (CLT) methods and those that primarily use the grammar-translation method (GTM), as measured by a 28-question scale.

Participants and Setting

This section will include a description of the population, the participants, the sampling technique, and the sample size. The section concludes with a description of the setting.

Population

The participants for the study were drawn from a convenience sample of adult ancient Greek language students located in university-level (accredited and nonaccredited) ancient Greek language programs across the United States, Europe, and the Middle East during the past five years. Ancient Greek language program type #1 refers to online or in-person ancient Greek language programs that are designed for students who enroll in various ancient Greek language courses in order to learn the grammar of ancient Greek so students can read, study, exegete, and interpret the text. Students can also join cohorts of other ancient Greek language students so that students can have accountability, structure, and support while taking courses. These programs primarily use the GTM, and all classes are in the English language. Some students in this program are also enrolled multiple ancient Greek language programs.

Ancient Greek language program type #2 refers to online or in person ancient Greek language programs for students who want to learn ancient Greek with CLT. These program courses are designed based on current SLA principles and uses CLT. Each course requires

students to spend the majority of their time using the target language (ancient Greek) for active communication in the language (50-100% of class time). These programs primarily use CLT, and all courses are primarily taught in the ancient Greek language. Some students in this program are also enrolled in other ancient Greek language programs.

Participants

For this study, the number of participants sampled was 123 students which, according to Gall et al. (2007, p. 145), exceeds the required minimum of 120 for a MANOVA when assuming a medium effect size with statistical power of .7 at the .05 alpha level. For this study, the number of participants sampled was 123 adult students who had at least one semester of ancient Greek language instruction in a university-level program. The sample consisted of 97 males, 21 females, and 5 “prefer not to say” who were at least 18 years or older at the time of participation. Participants came from various ancient Greek language programs in the United States, Europe, and the Middle East. Participants were divided into two subgroups based on the primary method of instruction that was used in their ancient Greek language program. The two groups are as follows: students who primarily used the GMT (75% or more of their courses and studies) and students who used a mixture of both CLT and GTM and spent at least half their time using CLT methods.

Setting

The setting for this study was several different online and in-person ancient Greek language programs in the United States, Europe, and the Middle East that offer ancient Greek language instruction. There are two naturally occurring groups were considered. The first group is a language program that primarily uses GMT as its pedagogical approach to teaching the ancient Greek language. Students in these programs spend most of their class time discussing

and memorizing specific grammar rules, charts, and vocabulary lists in order to master the ancient Greek language. In these programs, ancient Greek language instructors and students rarely, if ever, speak in the target language. An average class might include students learning a new grammar rule or conjugation and then practicing by quickly reading an ancient Greek sentence out loud and quickly translating each word into English (or their native language) by parsing and glossing each ancient Greek word. The students are not taught to use the ancient Greek language actively but rather how to quickly dissect each ancient Greek word in order to translate it into their native language. The primary feature of these language programs is that students learn the ancient Greek language through the memorization of grammar rules, conjugation charts, and vocabulary lists.

The second group is a language program uses the CLT as one of its pedagogical approaches to teaching the ancient Greek language and relies on modern SLA principles to guide instruction. Students in these programs spend much of their class time actively using the target language (ancient Greek) in order to master the ancient Greek language. In these programs, ancient Greek language instructors and students attempt to speak in the target language. An average class might include students learning how to introduce themselves to other people, how to describe their likes and dislikes, and how to listen to and respond to commands like “sit,” “stand,” “pick up,” “put down,” etc. Many programs might also introduce grammar topics as they are appropriate, but most of the grammar instruction will be in the target language. In these programs, students rarely focus on translating an ancient Greek sentence into English (or their native language) but rather on internalizing the language structures by focusing on understanding the message conveyed in ancient Greek. The primary feature of these language programs is that instructors and students actively use the ancient Greek language in order to learn the ancient

Greek language.

Instrumentation

The instrument used in this study was adapted from an instrument used by Piniel and Csizer (2013) (See Appendix C for the instrument). Their instrument was pre-piloted before use in their study and was adapted from four scales that were adapted from two different previously standardized instruments (Alpert & Haber, 1960; Ryan, 2005). The self-efficacy scale was specifically formulated for Piniel and Csizer's study and was pre-piloted before being used in their study. The Cronbach alpha measures were calculated for each scale to evaluate the internal consistency of the scales. Permission was granted by the developers to adapt the instrument so that all references to the "English" language or "English Foreign Language (EFL)" were changed to "Ancient Greek Language." See Appendix D for an email from Dr. Katalin Piniel granting permission to use and adapt the instrument for this dissertation.

Questionnaire

Data were gathered for the dependent variables for this study by using a 28-item questionnaire consisting of five subscales. The questionnaire was created in the Hungarian language and tested using a think-aloud protocol (Dornyei, 2005). It was specifically developed to measure motivation, anxiety, and self-efficacy among L2 students (Piniel & Csizer, 2013). Four of the five subscales are based on scales developed by two different previously standardized instruments (Alpert & Haber, 1960; Ryan, 2005) and later adapted for use by Piniel and Csizer (2013). The self-efficacy scale was developed specifically by Piniel and Csizer (2013). The instrument was finalized after potentially problematic phrases were reworded based on the results of the think-aloud interviews. These scales have been used in numerous peer-reviewed studies (Csizér & Piniel, 2013; Gálik, 2006; Kobayashi, 2021; Kormos & Csizer, 2008; Schiller

& Dorner, 2022; Shih, 2019; Tahiri, 2020; Youvalari, 2021). A description of each scale and the scale items are presented below (for the items themselves see Appendix C).

Piniel and Csizer (2013) utilized the structural equation modeling (SEM) procedures outlined by Byrne (2009). First, they established the accuracy of their scales and then calculated the measurement models for each scale. In order to ensure construct validity, they examined prior research to develop a full measurement model. After deciding on the measurement model, they ran the analysis twice in order to calculate the initial fit indexes and review any amendments suggested by the program and affirm the acceptability of the fit indexes and the significance of all relationships within the model. They found that all relationships in the model were significant.

Motivated Learning Behavior Scale

The "motivated learning behavior" scale contains five items and was adapted from Ryan (2005), piloted by Gálik (2006), and finalized by Kormos and Csizer (2008). The scale measures students' desire and willingness to work hard and persist in learning the ancient Greek language using a 5-point Likert scale. This scale has a Cronbach's alpha of .81 (Piniel & Csizer, 2013). This standardized scale is commonly used worldwide to measure students' intended behavior (Dörnyei & Ushioda, 2021; Piniel & Csizer, 2013).

Language Learning Experience Scale

The "language learning experience" scale contains four items and was also taken from Ryan (2005), piloted by Gálik (2006), and finalized by Kormos and Csizer (2008). It measures how positively students relate to their ancient Greek language learning experiences using a 5-point Likert scale. This scale has a Cronbach's alpha of .85 (Piniel & Csizer, 2013). This scale was included in the instrument because the language learning experience is one of the critical

variables in Dornyei's (2005) L2 motivational self-system theory (Piniel & Csizer, 2013).

Self-Efficacy Scale

The "self-efficacy" scale contains nine items was taken from Piniel and Csizer (2013) and was based on Bandura's conceptualizations of the construct and his guidelines for compiling such an instrument (Bandura, 2006). The scale measures the ancient Greek language learners' sense of self-efficacy in connection with the four language skills in and outside the classroom using a 5-point Likert scale (Piniel & Csizer, 2013). This scale measures to what extent the ancient Greek language student believes they can perform language tasks at a designated level (Shih, 2019). This scale has a Cronbach's alpha of .92 (Piniel & Csizer, 2013).

Facilitating Anxiety Scale

The "facilitating anxiety" scale has five items and was adapted from Alpert and Haber's (1960) Achievement Anxiety Test and was used to measure facilitating experiences of foreign language classroom anxiety and distinguish it from debilitating anxiety which is not explicitly set out by the FLCAS (Horwitz, 1991). Facilitating anxiety is defined as anxiety that motivates the learner to invest more effort into language learning (Piniel & Csizer, 2013). This scale consisted of five 5-point Likert-scale items and was found to have a Cronbach's alpha of .60 which can be considered "marginally or minimally reliable" (Cohen, et al., 2007, p. 506). Cronbach's alpha scores will be run for this scale when data is collected for this study.

Debilitating Anxiety Scale

The "debilitating anxiety" scale has five items and was also adapted from Alpert and Haber's (1960) Achievement Anxiety Test. The scale measures debilitating experiences of ancient Greek language classroom anxiety using a 5-point Likert scale. Debilitating anxiety is defined as anxiety that is specifically tied to the language learning situation and is characterized

by feelings of inhibition and apprehension. This scale has a Cronbach's alpha of .86 (Piniel & Csizer, 2013). See Appendix C for instrument.

All 28 items are measured using a 5-point Likert scale that ranged from Strongly Agree to Strongly Disagree. Responses were as follows: Strongly Agree = 5, Agree = 4, Neutral = 3, Disagree = 2, and Strongly Disagree = 1. The combined possible score on this instrument ranges from 28 to 140. A score of 28 is the lowest possible score meaning that the participant strongly disagreed with every item on the questionnaire. A score of 140 is the highest possible score meaning that the participant strongly agreed with every item on the questionnaire. The questionnaire was distributed using Google Forms and scored by the researcher. The participants were asked to rate each item on the questionnaire using the Likert Scale with an approximate time of completion within 15 minutes. The scale question items are presented in Appendix C. Permission was granted to use this instrument (See Appendix D).

Procedures

This study secured IRB approval and then immediately contacted the participating programs to arrange for data collection (See Appendix A for IRB Approval). Professors and teachers of ancient Greek at several universities and online programs were contacted through email, informed about the study, and asked if they would allow their students to participate. After getting approval from each program to elicit participants for this study, the researcher explained how each online survey is supposed to be administered when given to the participants. Participants took the online questionnaire on an electronic device. Links were provided to administrators of several ancient Greek language programs directly, who will distribute them to their students online. Links were also distributed through several online platforms (Discord, Facebook, Twitter, etc.) in groups where students of the ancient Greek language gather to discuss

and learn ancient Greek. After participants completed the survey, the researcher collected the data and then analyzed it using a MANOVA and independent samples *t*-test.

During all stages of data collection, all student and survey information that could identify the participants was protected. All Data were stored securely and only the researcher had access to records. Data were stored on a password-protected computer and a password-protected external hard drive. When the data was not being utilized, the computer and external drive were stored in a locked desk drawer. At all stages of data collection, all information that could identify the participants was protected. Data was stored securely and only the researcher had access to records. Data was stored on a password-protected computer and password-protected cloud storage. When not being utilized, the computer was stored in a locked desk. The data will be retained for a period of three years after the completion of this research study.

Data Analysis

This study utilized a MANOVA, or multivariate analysis of variance. A MANOVA is a statistical technique that is used to analyze the effects of multiple categorical independent variables (in this case, teaching methods: GTM vs. CLT) on multiple dependent variables (student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety) (Gall et al., 2007). The reason for using a MANOVA to address the research question is that it allows the researcher to examine the effects of the teaching methods (GTM vs. CLT) on all five outcome variables simultaneously rather than analyzing each variable separately (Barthlow et al., 2023). This can provide a more comprehensive understanding of how the teaching methods impact these different aspects of language learning. Additionally, a MANOVA also has the advantage of increasing statistical power, controlling for Type I error, and directly addressing the research question, making it the appropriate choice for this study. However, the assumption of normality

was not met and some outliers existed for several of the dependent variables. Therefore, the researcher also decided to test the robustness of the MANOVA results by conducting nonparametric Mann-Whitney U tests on the dependent variables of language learning experience, self-efficacy, and debilitating anxiety.

This study tested six assumptions for MANOVAs as found in the *Quantitative Research Statistics Resource Guide* (Barthlow et al., 2023). First, a visual inspection was completed, and data were screened for missing and inaccurate entries. During the visual inspection, a scatter plot was used to test the assumption of linearity. Second, Pearson correlations were run between dependent variables in each group of the independent variables in order to test the assumption of no multicollinearity. Third, boxplots were used to identify univariate outliers and a Mahalanobis distance was used to identify multivariate outliers. Fourth, a Shapiro-Wilks test for normality was used to test the assumption of multivariate normality. Finally, Box's M test of equality of covariances was used to test the assumption of the homogeneity of variance-covariance matrices.

The alpha level was the significance level set by the researcher to determine the level of significance for the test results. In this study, the alpha level was set at 0.05 ($\alpha = .05$) indicating that results are significant if the p -value is less than or equal to 0.05. Effect size is the magnitude of the relationship between the variables being investigated and measures the proportion of the total variability in the dependent variable that can be explained by the independent variable. In this study, the effect size was calculated using a partial eta square (η^2_p). The null hypothesis will be rejected at the 95% confidence level.

A post hoc analysis was also conducted in order to further examine where statistically significant differences existed in reading self-efficacy, the researcher conducted an independent samples t -test on the overall reading self-efficacy score. However, some assumptions were not

met and some outliers existed. Therefore, the researcher also decided to test the robustness of the independent samples t -test results by conducting nonparametric Mann-Whitney U tests on the reading self-efficacy.

CHAPTER FOUR: FINDINGS

Overview

The purpose of this quantitative, causal-comparative study was to determine if ancient Greek language programs that use communicative language teaching methods (CLT) produce different student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety and debilitating anxiety scores than programs that primarily use the grammar-translation method (GTM) of teaching ancient Greek. The researcher ran a one-way MANOVA on the data gathered from the 28-item questionnaire consisting of five subscales (student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety). A post hoc analysis was also conducted on the reading self-efficacy scores using an independent samples t-test. Due to some assumptions not being met for the MANOVA and the independent samples t-test, Mann—Whitney U tests were used to test the robustness of the results. This chapter includes the research question, null hypothesis, descriptive statistics, and the results of this study.

Research Question

RQ1: Is there a difference between students using communicative language teaching vs. grammar-translation method on student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety in adult, university-level (accredited and nonaccredited) ancient Greek language programs?

Null Hypothesis

H₀1: There is no significant difference in student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety scores between ancient Greek language

programs that primarily use communicative language teaching (CLT) methods and those that primarily use the grammar-translation method (GTM), as measured by a 28-question scale.

Descriptive Statistics

The final participants in this study consisted of 123 ancient Greek language students. One hundred thirty-one students completed the survey but only 123 were used for the final data analysis. The 123 participants were broken down into two groups. The first group had 66 participants and utilized GTM for 75% or more of their studies. The second group had 57 participants and utilized CLT for 50% or more of their studies. Percentages, sample demographics, and study variables data can be found in Table 1.

Table 1*Percentages and Frequencies, Sample Demographics and Study Variables (n=123)*

	Frequency	Percent
<i>Gender</i>		
Male	99	80.5%
Female	21	17.1%
Prefer Not to Say	3	2.4%
<i>How many years have you studied the Ancient Greek language?</i>		
Less than 1 year	6	4.9%
1 year	12	9.8%
2 years	17	13.8%
3 years	23	18.7%
4 years	6	4.9%
5 years or more years	59	48.0%
<i>How long ago did you complete your last ancient Greek language course?</i>		
Less than 1 year	66	53.7%
1 year	12	9.8%
2 years	11	8.9%
3 years	4	3.3%
4 years	3	2.4%
5 years or more years	26	21.1%
Missing	1	0.8%
<i>How many ancient Greek language courses have you taken?</i>		
One	8	6.5%
Two	14	11.4%
Three	24	19.5%
Four	14	11.4%
Five or more	63	51.2%
<i>Language Learning Method Group</i>		
Grammar Translation Method (GTM)	66	53.7%
Communicative Language Teaching (CLT)	57	46.3%

The motivated learning behavior scale contains five items and measures students' desire and willingness to work hard and persist in learning the ancient Greek language ($M = 21.20$, $SD = 3.63$). The language learning experience scale contains four items and measures how positively students relate to their ancient Greek language learning experiences ($M = 15.68$, $SD = 3.33$). The

self-efficacy scale contains nine items and measures the ancient Greek language learners' sense of self-efficacy in connection with the four language skills inside and outside the classroom ($M = 30.80$, $SD = 7.54$). The facilitating anxiety scale has five items and measures facilitating experiences of foreign language classroom anxiety that motivates the learner to invest more effort into language learning ($M = 15.80$, $SD = 3.77$). The debilitating anxiety scale has five items and measures debilitating experiences of the ancient Greek language classroom that inhibit the learner's ability to effectively learn a language ($M = 13.00$, $SD = 4.26$). Data obtained for the dependent variables of student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety can be found in Table 2.

Table 2

Means and Standard Deviations for Study Variables

	Learning Methods	<i>M</i>	<i>SD</i>	<i>n</i>
Student Motivation	GTM	20.97	3.64	66
	CLT	21.46	3.65	57
	Total	21.20	3.63	123
Language Learning Experience	GTM	14.83	3.51	66
	CLT	16.67	2.82	57
	Total	15.68	3.33	123
Self-Efficacy	GTM	27.03	6.77	66
	CLT	35.16	5.88	57
	Total	30.80	7.54	123
Facilitating Anxiety	GTM	15.68	3.78	66
	CLT	15.95	3.79	57
	Total	15.80	3.77	123
Debilitating Anxiety	GTM	12.27	4.62	66
	CLT	13.84	3.66	57
	Total	13.00	4.26	123

Results for One-Way MANOVA

Data Screening

Data screening was conducted on each group's dependent variables (student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety). In preparation for use in SPSS, the data file was scanned for missing data, data inconsistencies, abnormalities, and outliers. Eight student responses were found to have missing or inconsistent data. The researcher made the decision to delete these responses from the data set.

Assumptions

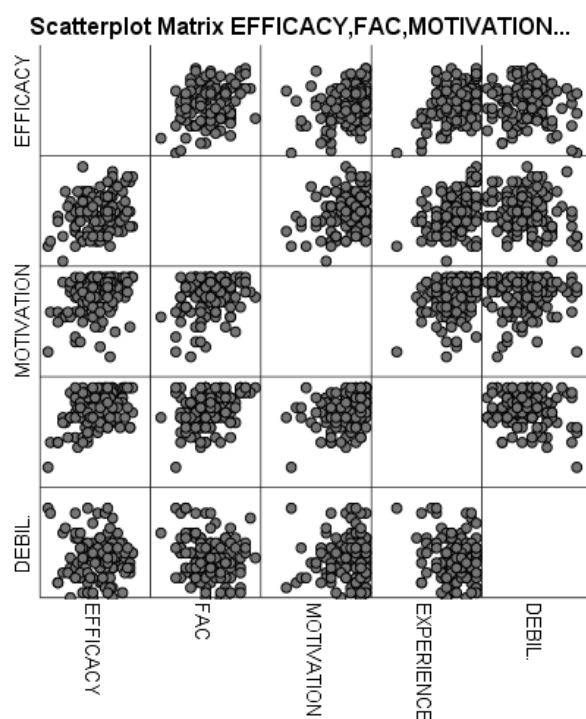
MANOVA requires that the following assumptions be tenable:

- linearity (Use scatterplots)
- no multicollinearity (Use Pearson correlations between the dependent variable. The assumption is tenable if the correlation is moderate and less than .9).
- no univariate or multivariate outliers (Use Box plots to check for univariate outliers and use Mahalanobis distance test for multivariate outliers)
- multivariate normality (Use Wilk's Lambda)
- homogeneity of variance-covariance matrices (Use Box's M)
- homogeneity of variances (Use Levene's test of equality of variance)

Assumption of Linearity

The assumption of linearity was tested by using a scatterplot matrix for each group. The scatterplot matrix reveals a comprehensive view of the relationships between variables within each group. Upon close examination of the scatterplot matrix, we observe a nearly linear pattern, as seen in Figure 1. Therefore, based on the scatterplot matrix analysis, it is apparent that the assumption of linearity is tenable for the data.

Figure 1
Scatterplot Matrix



Assumption of No Multicollinearity

A series of Pearson's correlation analyses were conducted to investigate the relationships among dependent variables. The assumption is tenable if the correlation is moderate and less than .9. As seen in Table 3, all correlations are less than .9; therefore, the assumption of no multicollinearity is tenable.

Table 3*Results of Correlations Between Study Variables*

Measures	1	2	3	4
1. Student Motivation ($n=123$)	-			
2. Learning Experience ($n=123$)	.38**	-		
3. Self-Efficacy ($n=123$)	.35**	.42**	-	
4. Facilitating Anxiety ($n=123$)	.28**	.35**	.29**	
5. Debilitating Anxiety ($n=123$)	.06	-.17	-.04	-.21*

* $p < .05$, ** $p < .01$ (two-tailed).***Assumption of no Univariate or Multivariate Outliers***

Boxplots were used to detect extreme univariate outliers for each dependent variable. This visual inspection shows that there were no outliers present in self-efficacy or facilitating anxiety. This visual inspection also unveiled the presence of outliers in student motivation, language learning experience, and debilitating anxiety as can be seen in Figure 2, Figure 3, and Figure 4. Since there were no extreme outliers found in any of the dependent variables and because it is expected that some students would score high or low on any of the five scales used, it was decided to keep the outliers in the data set. Therefore, the assumption of no univariate or multivariate outliers is tenable.

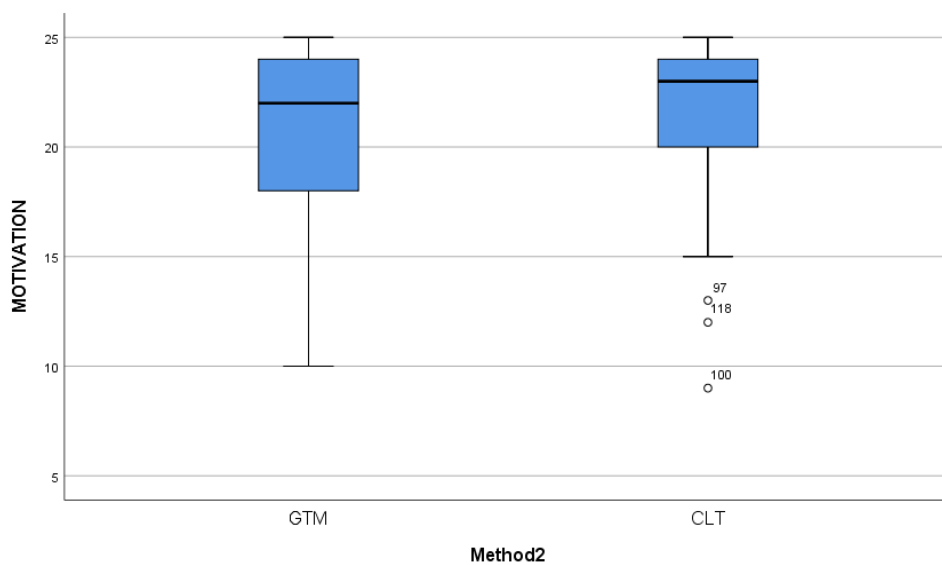
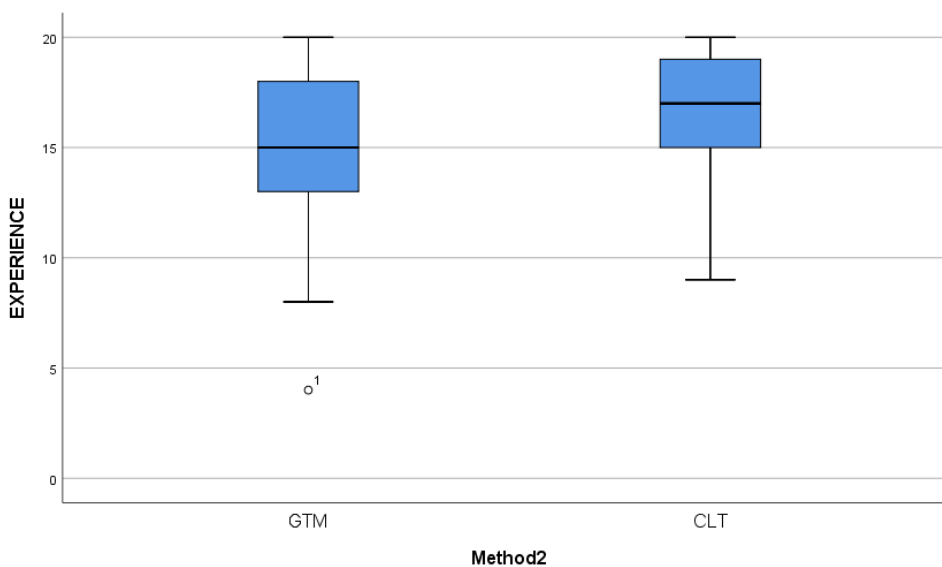
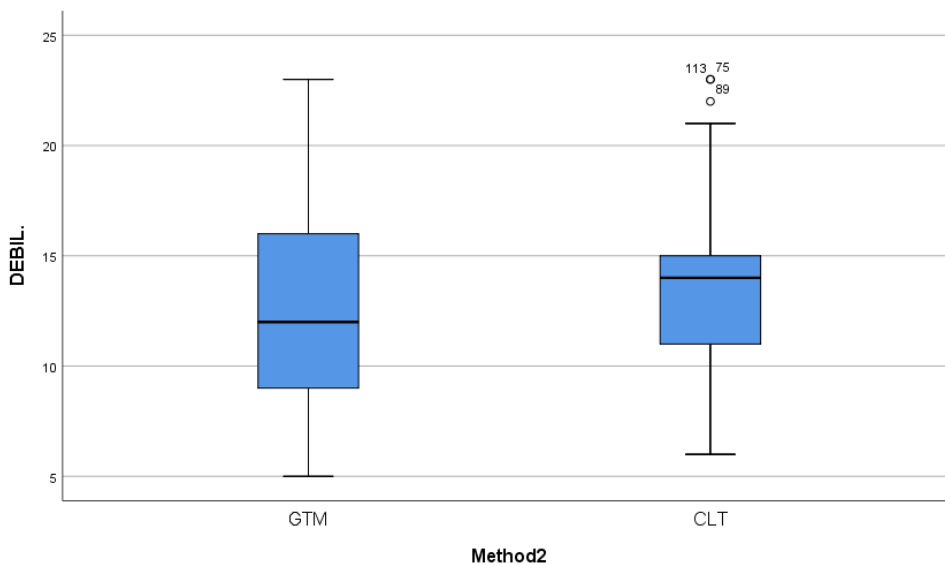
Figure 2*Box Plot: Student Motivation***Figure 3***Box Plot: Language Learning Experience*

Figure 4*Box Plot: Debilitating Anxiety****Assumption of Multivariate Normality***

A Shapiro-Wilk test was used to test the assumption of multivariate normality, as seen in Table 4. This statistical analysis revealed that the assumptions of normality were not met for student motivation, language learning experience, and debilitating anxiety. Conversely, self-efficacy and facilitating anxiety exhibited normal distributions, indicating their adherence to a Gaussian distribution. Since MANOVA is robust to some violations of normality when the sample size is large and equal, the decision was made to move forward with MANOVA.

Table 4*Tests of Normality*

Shapiro-Wilk

	Learning Methods	Statistic	<i>df</i>	Sig.
Student Motivation	GTM	.897	66	.000
	CLT	.842	57	.000
Language Learning Experience	GTM	.955	66	.018
	CLT	.920	57	.001
Self-Efficacy	GTM	.984	66	.550
	CLT	.965	57	.102
Facilitating Anxiety	GTM	.983	66	.505
	CLT	.971	57	.180
Debilitating Anxiety	GTM	.963	66	.048
	CLT	.962	57	.072

Assumption of Homogeneity of Variance Covariance Matrices

The application of Box's M test yielded not significant results, the assumption of equality of covariance matrices for the overarching MANOVA model is met, as seen in Table 5. Since the *p*-value is greater than 0.05, we fail to reject the null hypothesis, indicating that there is no significant evidence to suggest that the covariance matrices of the groups differ significantly from each other.

Table 5*Box's Test of Equality of Covariance Matrices*

Box's M	24.25
F	1.54
df 1	15
df 2	56259.77
Sig.	.081

Tests the null hypothesis
that the observed
covariance matrices of
the dependent variables
are equal across groups.

a. Design: Intercept +
Group

Table 6*One-Way MANOVA Summary Table for Learning Methods (n=123)*

Source	SS	df	F	Sig.	η^2_p
Student Motivation	7.24	1	0.55	.461	.004
Learning Experience	102.80	1	9.97	.003**	.076
Self-Efficacy	2020.40	1	49.75	.000**	.291
Facilitating anxiety	2.16	1	0.15	.699	.001
Debilitating anxiety	75.33	1	4.62	.041*	.034

One-Way MANOVA Results

A one-way multivariate analysis of variance was run to determine the effect of two learning methods on several outcomes related to learning ancient Greek: Student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety.

Participants learned ancient Greek either through GTM or CLT. The differences between the two methods on the combined dependent variables were statistically significant, $F(5, 114) = 14.25$, $p < .001$; Pillai's Trace = .379; partial $\eta^2 = .379$, which is a large effect size.

Results for Student Motivation

The difference between the student motivation scores was not statistically significant, $F(1, 122) = 7.24, p = .46$; partial $\eta^2 = .004$. Therefore, the null hypothesis was not rejected for the dependent variable student motivation with ($M = 21.46, SD = 3.65$) for participants who learned ancient Greek using CLT and ($M = 20.97, SD = 3.64$) and for participants who learned ancient Greek using GTM.

Results for Facilitating Anxiety

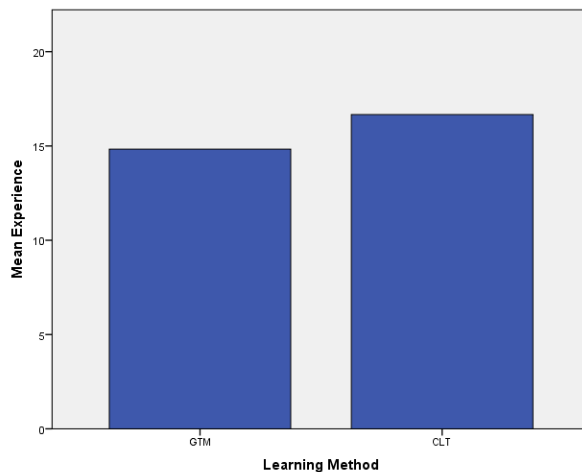
The difference between the facilitating anxiety scores also was not statistically significant, $F(1, 122) = 2.16, p = .70$; partial $\eta^2 = .001$. Therefore, the null hypothesis also was not rejected for the dependent variable facilitating anxiety with ($M = 15.95, SD = 3.79$) for participants who learned ancient Greek using CLT and ($M = 15.68, SD = 3.78$) for participants who learned ancient Greek using GTM.

Results for Language Learning Experience

It was found that participants who learned ancient Greek using CLT ($M = 16.67$, $SD = 2.82$) scored higher in language learning experience than those using GTM ($M = 14.83$, $SD = 3.51$), respectively as seen in Figure 5. The differences between the learning methods on the dependent variable were statistically significant, $F(1, 122) = 102.81$, $p < .01$; partial $\eta^2 = .076$, which is a medium effect size. Therefore, the null hypothesis was rejected for the dependent variable language learning experience.

Figure 5

Bar graph: Language Learning Experience

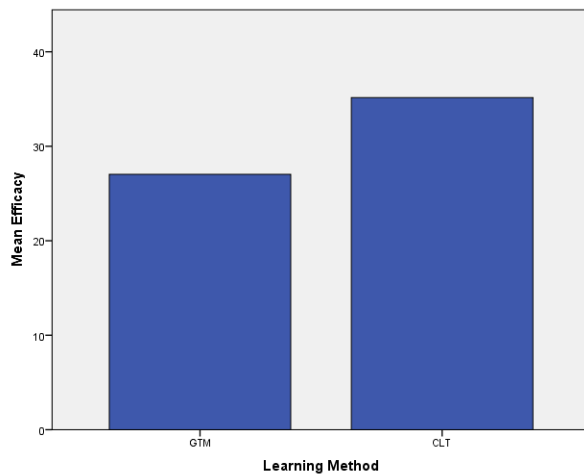


Results for Self-efficacy

Participants who learned ancient Geek through CLT ($M = 35.16$, $SD = 5.88$) scored higher on self-efficacy than those who learned through GTM ($M = 27.22$, $SD = 6.65$), respectively as seen in Figure 6. The differences between the learning methods on the dependent variable were statistically significant, $F(1, 122) = 2,022.40$, $p < .001$; partial $\eta^2 = .291$, which is a large effect size. Therefore, the null hypothesis was rejected for the dependent variable self-efficacy.

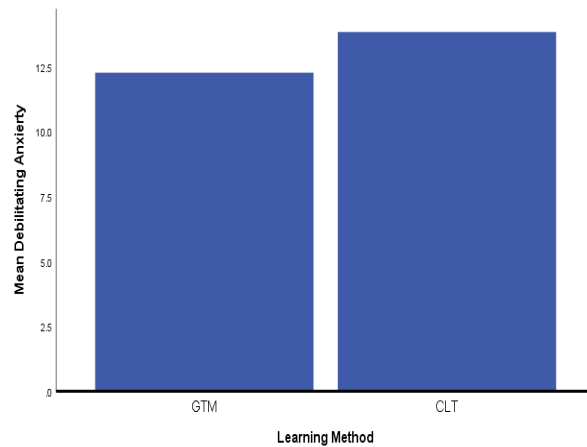
Figure 6

Bar graph: Self-Efficacy



Results for Debilitating Anxiety

Participants who learned ancient Geek through CLT ($M = 13.84$, $SD = 3.66$) scored higher on debilitating anxiety than those who learned through GTM ($M = 12.27$, $SD = 4.62$), respectively as seen in Figure 7. The differences between the learning methods on the combined dependent variables were statistically significant, $F(1, 122) = 75.33$, $p < .05$; partial $\eta^2 = .034$, which is a small effect size. Therefore, the null hypothesis was rejected for the dependent variable debilitating anxiety.

Figure 7*Bar graph: Debilitating Anxiety****Confirming the Robustness of the MANOVA Results***

Given that the assumption of normality was not met and that some outliers exist for several of the dependent variables, the researcher decided to test the robustness of the MANOVA results by conducting nonparametric Mann-Whitney U tests on the dependent variables language learning experience, self-efficacy, and debilitating anxiety. The Mann-Whitney U test does not need the data to meet the assumptions of normality and allows for outliers. The Mann-Whitney U results validate and replicate the significant findings of the MANOVA, as seen below.

The results show:

1. Language learning experience scores for CLT (mean rank = 72.15) were statistically significantly higher than for GTM (mean rank = 53.23), $U = 2,459.50$, $p < .01$.
2. Self-efficacy scores for CLT (mean rank = 82.29) were statistically significantly higher than for GTM (mean rank = 44.48), $U = 3,037.50$, $p < .001$.
3. Debilitating anxiety for CLT (mean rank = 69.02) were statistically significantly higher than for GTM (mean rank = 55.94), $U = 2,280.00$, $p < .05$.

Post Hoc Analysis

The self-efficacy scale measures all four activities of language learning (reading, writing, listening, and speaking). However, advocates of GTM and CLT both argue that the ultimate purpose of learning an ancient language like ancient Greek is to be able to read actual ancient Greek text. The key difference is that advocates of CLT argue that language learners become better readers by learning how to listen, speak, and write ancient Greek while advocates of GTM argue that language learners only need to learn and practice reading. Therefore, in order to further examine where statistically significant differences existed in reading self-efficacy, the researcher conducted an independent samples *t*-test on the overall reading self-efficacy score.

The overall reading self-efficacy score is based on reading score 1 and reading score 2 from the self-efficacy scale. Reading score 1 is the second item on the self-efficacy scale and measures the ancient Greek language learners' sense of confidence in connection to their ability to do silent reading tasks inside the ancient Greek language classroom. Reading score 2 is the eighth item on the self-efficacy scale and measures the ancient Greek language learners' sense of confidence in connection to their ability to understand what they read in the ancient Greek language outside the classroom. Descriptive statistics are shown in Table 7.

Table 7

Means and Standard Deviations for Reading Self-Efficacy Score

	Learning Methods	<i>M</i>	<i>SD</i>	<i>n</i>
Reading Self-Efficacy Score	GTM	7.54	1.78	66
	CLT	8.21	1.21	57

Assumptions

An independent samples *t*-test requires that the following assumptions be tenable:

- no significant (extreme) outliers (Use Box plots to check for extreme outliers)

- normal distribution (Use Shapiro-Wilks)
- homogeneity of variances (Use Levene's test of equality of variance)

In the investigation of reading self-efficacy scores, boxplots were employed to identify potential extreme outliers. This visual examination revealed the presence of outliers, as seen in Figure 8. It is noteworthy that while outliers were detected, none of them were considered extreme. Consequently, it was determined that retaining these outliers as part of the dataset was a prudent course of action. To assess the normality of the dataset, the Shapiro-Wilk test was conducted, yielding results that indicated a departure from normality for both GTM ($W = .907, p = .000$) and CLT ($W = .921, p = .001$), as outlined in Table 8. Furthermore, Levene's test results suggested that equality of variance could not be assumed in each case ($p > 0.05$), as seen in Table 9.

Table 8

Tests of Normality for Overall Reading Self-Efficacy score

Shapiro-Wilk				
	Learning Methods	Statistic	<i>df</i>	Sig.
Reading Self-Efficacy Score	GTM	.907	66	.000
	CLT	.921	57	.001

Table 9

Levene's Test of Equality of Error Variances

		<i>F</i>	Sig.
Reading Self-Efficacy Score	Equal Variances Assumed	6.332	.013
	Equal Variances Not Assumed		

However, given the substantial sample size exceeding 100 and the approximately equal group sizes, any violation of this assumption is expected to have a diminished impact and is

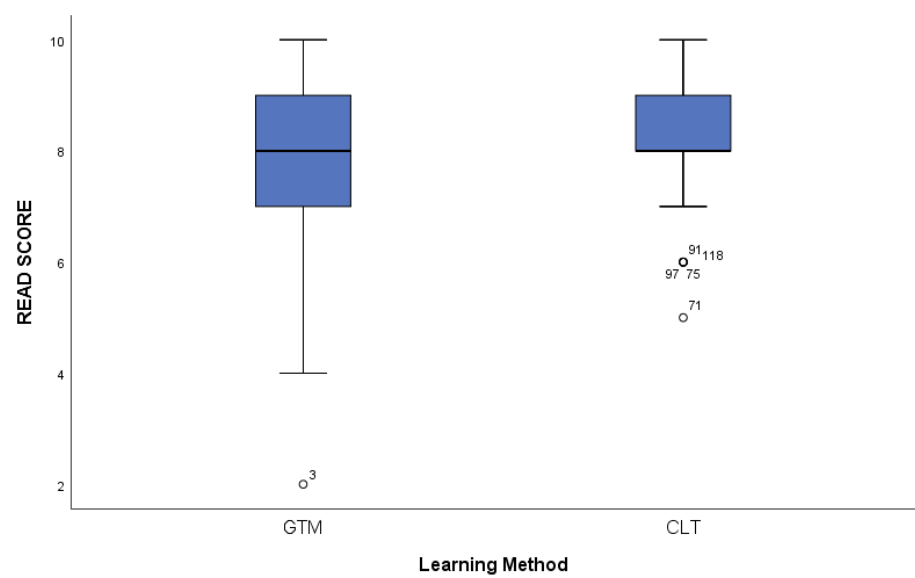
generally considered less concerning. Therefore, we proceed with confidence to employ the independent samples *t*-test.

Results for Reading Self-Efficacy

An independent samples *t*-test was used to test the null hypothesis regarding differences in student reading self-efficacy scores between ancient Greek language programs that primarily use communicative language teaching (CLT) methods and those that primarily use the grammar-translation method (GTM). Equal variance was assumed. The *t*-statistic was found to be -2.41 with 120 degrees of freedom (*df*), and the associated *p*-value (*p*) was less than 0.05 (*p* = .018). Therefore, the differences between the learning methods on the combined dependent variables were statistically significant. Participants who learned ancient Greek through CLT (*M* = 8.21, *SD* = 1.21) scored higher on reading self-efficacy than those who learned through GTM (*M* = 7.54, *SD* = 1.78).

However, to bolster the robustness of our *t*-test results, a Mann-Whitney U test was employed to corroborate our findings. It also found that CLT (mean rank = 67.88) exhibited statistically significant higher scores over GTM (mean rank = 55.91), with *U* = 2,216.00 and *p* < 0.05. Therefore, the Mann-Whitney U test not only confirms but also replicates the significant outcomes observed in the *t*-test.

Figure 8
Box Plot: Reading Self-Efficacy Score



CHAPTER FIVE: CONCLUSIONS

Overview

In this final chapter, we draw conclusions from the findings of our study and discuss their implications, limitations, and potential avenues for future research. The primary aim of this dissertation was to investigate whether there is a significant difference in student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety scores between ancient Greek language programs that use Communicative Language Teaching (CLT) methods and those that primarily use the Grammar-Translation Method (GTM). We used a 28-question scale to measure these variables and conducted our research with a convenience sample of students from diverse backgrounds enrolled in ancient Greek language programs.

Discussion

The purpose of this quantitative, causal-comparative study was to determine if ancient Greek language programs that use communicative language teaching methods (CLT) produce different student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety scores than programs that primarily use the grammar-translation method (GTM) of teaching ancient Greek. The research hypothesis stated that there is no significant difference in student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety scores between ancient Greek language programs that use communicative language teaching (CLT) methods and those that primarily use the grammar-translation method (GTM), as measured by a 28-question scale. Analysis of the data indicated there was a statistically significant difference between CLT and GTM in regards to language learning experience, self-efficacy, and debilitating anxiety in which CLT produced higher scores than GTM.

It is also important to note that proponents of CLT and GTM agree that the ultimate goal of learning ancient Greek is increased ability in reading primary source materials. Therefore post hoc testing was conducted to determine whether there were statistical differences in reading scores taken from two items on the self-efficacy scale. This post hoc analysis found that CLT also produced higher reading self-efficacy scores than GTM. Multiple dependent variables were tested in our study and our results indicate that we reject the null hypothesis for language learning experience, self-efficacy, and debilitating anxiety based on the statistical tests performed. However, for student motivation and facilitating anxiety, we do not have sufficient evidence to reject the null hypothesis.

Theoretical Framework

This study was grounded in Vygotsky's (1978) theory of social constructivism and further framed by Krashen's (1981) theory of second language acquisition (SLA) and Paul Nations' four strands of language learning (Nation & Yamamoto, 2012). Our research findings, which indicate high self-efficacy and improved language learning experiences with the CLT approach, align significantly with Vygotsky's theory of social constructivism (Vygotsky, 1978). Vygotsky's theory underscores the collaborative nature of learning and the active construction of knowledge through social interaction (Berger & Luckmann, 1966). The CLT approach promotes collaborative learning, emphasizing group activities and interactions, thus facilitating mutual comprehension and co-construction of knowledge, in accordance with Vygotsky's ideas. Moreover, CLT corresponds with Vygotsky's Zone of Proximal Development concept by offering scaffolding and support, enabling learners to reach a higher level of proficiency collectively. Our research also underscores the social nature of language acquisition, in line with Vygotsky's assertion that language development is fundamentally a social activity. It highlights

that language learning is not just about linguistic input but also involves meaningful social interactions, which is a key facet of Vygotsky's theory.

Krashen's (1981) theory of SLA encompasses five fundamental hypotheses: the acquisition-learning hypothesis, natural order hypothesis, monitor hypothesis, comprehensible input hypothesis, and the affective filter hypothesis. In the context of our findings, CLT methods find a strong resonance with Krashen's comprehension hypothesis, as it centers on comprehensible student input and output, focusing on understanding the messages conveyed by language, thereby fostering language acquisition. CLT emphasizes engagement at the learner's current fluency level and slightly beyond, aligning with the idea that language acquisition occurs when individuals concentrate on comprehending language.

In contrast, Krashen distinguishes the skill-building hypothesis which posits that language acquisition transpires through the conscious memorization of vocabulary and grammar rules, a process often associated with GTM. However, Krashen points out the limited success of the skill-building approach and argues for the supremacy of the comprehension hypothesis. Our research findings, which highlight the benefits of CLT, support Krashen's perspective by showcasing the efficacy of comprehension-focused language learning techniques over the skill-building approach. Therefore, our findings contribute to the ongoing shift in the field of linguistics from considering the skill-building hypothesis as an axiom to viewing it as a hypothesis in light of the comprehensible input hypothesis's demonstrated success.

Paul Nation's (2007) framework for language learning, comprising four strands, strongly resonates with our research findings. The first strand, "meaning-focused input," which involves learning through listening and reading, aligns with our research as it underscores the importance of comprehensible input and emphasizes understanding the meaning of the language, in harmony

with Krashen's input hypothesis (Krashen, 2013). Our findings support this strand by demonstrating that the CLT approach prioritizes comprehensible student input, facilitating language acquisition. The second strand, "meaning-focused output," based on speaking and writing, is vital for language learners as it complements the input strand and is considered essential by many linguists, including Krashen (2013) and Hill (2022). Our research concurs with this by showing that language learners benefit from engaging in comprehensible output, which is facilitated by CLT's interactive nature.

The third strand, "language-focused learning," primarily deals with explicit grammar and formal aspects of language learning. Our research highlights that explicit grammar instruction, while beneficial, should constitute only a fraction of instructional time, aligning with the notion that most language learning should focus on the meaning of the L2. This perspective is consistent with Krashen's learned system in his acquisition-learning hypothesis (Krashen, 2013). The fourth strand, "fluency development," underscores the importance of consistent practice to enhance language proficiency, mirroring Krashen's input hypothesis, which emphasizes the need for comprehensible input just beyond the learner's current level of competence for language acquisition (Krashen, 2013). Our research findings support this strand by demonstrating that the CLT approach, with its emphasis on interactive communication, enables students to actively use their language knowledge, contributing to improved fluency. Our research aligns with Nation's four strands of language learning, particularly emphasizing the significance of meaning-focused input and output, as well as the need for a well-balanced language course that prioritizes language comprehension and fluency development, in line with theories like Krashen's input hypothesis.

Krashen's Affective Filters Hypothesis

Our research findings have a notable bearing on Krashen's affective filter hypothesis, which underscores the role of emotional and motivational factors in language acquisition. Krashen's theory posits that student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety are integral to a language learner's ability to acquire a second language (Krashen, 1981). Our research, indicating high self-efficacy and positive language learning experiences with the CLT approach, demonstrates that CLT is conducive to lowering the affective filter and promoting language acquisition. However, it is noteworthy that our research also found that debilitating anxiety is statistically higher for CLT than GTM.

Language learners with a strong affective filter, characterized by low motivation and unfavorable attitudes, may struggle to internalize a language because they are less likely to seek out comprehensible input (Yang, et al., 2021). In contrast, students with a low affective filter, who have a high language learning experience and positive attitudes, actively seek and obtain more comprehensible input, aligning with the emphasis on comprehensible input in the acquisition process (Krashen, 1981). Our research aligns with this concept, as it highlights how the CLT approach, which fosters positive language learning experiences and self-efficacy, encourages students to actively engage with the language, seeking and benefiting from comprehensible input.

In the context of research on modern language acquisition, it is evident that factors such as student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety play a pivotal role in language learning success. The research found that the applicability of these findings extends to ancient language learning, challenging the notion that ancient languages are inherently more challenging. Our research suggests that the choice of language teaching methodology, such as

GTM or CLT, can significantly influence the perception of difficulty in language learning.

Therefore, it is imperative for language instructors to consider and address the affective filter, as it can profoundly impact the language acquisition process, as our research findings illustrate.

Our results demonstrated that there exists a statistically significant difference between CLT and GTM regarding language learning experience, debilitating anxiety, self-efficacy, and reading self-efficacy. Notably, CLT consistently yielded higher scores in these affective filters than GTM. These findings reinforce Krashen's affective filter hypothesis by exemplifying how CLT has a positive impact on language learning experience, self-efficacy, and reading self-efficacy. Our research also aligns with recent research in the field of SLA that highlights the importance of pedagogical approaches in shaping learners' emotional experiences and their overall language acquisition journey (Wang et al., 2021; Yang et al., 2021; Zhang et al., 2020).

Language Learning Experience

First, a positive and engaging language learning experience has emerged as a crucial factor in promoting effective language acquisition in the field of language education. Recent research (Pavelescu, 2023; Wang et al., 2021; Yang et al., 2021; Zhang et al., 2020) demonstrates that a positive language learning experience has a substantial impact on motivation and language performance. Zhang et al. (2020) discovered that students whose language learning experiences were enjoyable exhibited greater motivation and language proficiency. Yang et al. (2021) investigated language learning experiences and also found that pedagogical approaches that promoted active participation, interaction, and learner engagement significantly enhanced the overall learning experience. The current research study has added to this body of knowledge by showing that CLT also promotes a better language learning experience among students who are learning ancient Greek.

Debilitating Anxiety

Second, our study revealed a statistical increase in debilitating anxiety associated with CLT. It should be noted that recent research has found that debilitating anxiety is not uncommon in the context of SLA and is experienced by some language learners (Dewaele & Li, 2020; Dewaele et al., 2018; Ma, 2022). Among second language learners, anxiety can manifest in various forms, including fear of making mistakes, apprehension about speaking in front of others, or worries about not understanding or being understood (Gregersen et al., 2014; Ma, 2022). Our findings make sense considering one of the biggest differences between GTM and CLT is the use of active communicative speaking, which research has shown can increase foreign language anxiety (Gregersen et al., 2014). However, it is essential to recognize that language learning can be a complex and emotionally charged process for many individuals. Anxiety (both facilitating and debilitating), to a certain extent, is a normal response to the challenges and uncertainties that can arise when learning a new language (Gregersen et al., 2014; Horwitz et al., 1986).

Recent research has also highlighted the critical role instructors play in addressing debilitating anxiety in language learning contexts (Dewaele et al., 2022; Dewaele et al., 2018; Ma, 2022; Zheng, 2008). Even though our study found CLT has a higher debilitating anxiety than GTM, it does not mean that this teaching method should be abandoned. This is especially true in light of the findings that show that CLT produces higher self-efficacy and language learning experience. Instead, the debilitating anxiety findings emphasize the need for a balanced approach that capitalizes on CLT's strengths in promoting engagement while proactively managing debilitating anxiety levels. Teachers of ancient Greek should strive to establish a classroom environment that recognizes and addresses the emotional needs of students, thereby

enhancing the overall language learning experience while reducing debilitating anxiety.

Self-Efficacy

Finally, our study employed a self-efficacy instrument to assess language learners' self-efficacy in multiple language domains, such as reading, writing, listening, and speaking. Notably, CLT appeared to promote higher levels of learner self-efficacy than GTM. This result is consistent with previous research indicating that CLT's emphasis on communication, interaction, and real-world language use can considerably boost learners' confidence in all their language skills, thereby contributing to greater overall self-efficacy (Dornyei, 2005; Ma, 2022). Recent research has shed additional light on the relationship between self-efficacy and language proficiency. Learners with higher self-efficacy tend to be more persistent, to set more difficult language learning objectives, and to ultimately achieve higher levels of performance (Bandura, 1997). Consequently, our findings regarding the positive impact of CLT on self-efficacy, as measured across various language domains, are consistent with the larger body of research emphasizing the importance of self-efficacy in SLA.

Reading Self-Efficacy

A notable outcome that deserves additional attention is the finding that CLT not only yields higher scores in overall language learning experiences and self-efficacy but also produces higher reading self-efficacy scores when compared to GTM. This finding resonates with current SLA research that emphasizes the multifaceted impact of teaching methods on various language skills. Recent research has found that CLT's emphasis on real-life communication, contextual understanding, and the application of language in authentic situations fosters a deeper comprehension of written texts (Li et al., 2020; Richards & Rodgers, 2001). The focus on interactive learning within CLT facilitates learners' ability to extract meaning from texts,

enhancing reading comprehension and fluency. CLT's holistic approach to language acquisition is pivotal in designing effective language programs and curricula, ultimately enhancing students' language learning experiences and overall language acquisition outcomes.

Overall, the relationship between affective factors and language learning outcomes is complex and multifaceted. The current study has shown that while CLT seems to enhance the language learning experience, overall self-efficacy, and reading self-efficacy, it might not have a pronounced impact on student motivation and facilitating anxiety. Considering these results, it is essential for educators to consider the affective filter dimension of language learning and the potential impact of teaching methods on student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, facilitating anxiety, and debilitating anxiety. While our study contributes valuable insights into the ancient Greek language context, further research is warranted to further explore these relationships in diverse language learning settings and to develop effective strategies for optimizing the affective filter to facilitate successful language acquisition.

Implications

When the research findings indicate that Communicative Language Teaching (CLT) produces higher language learning experiences, self-efficacy, and debilitating anxiety scores compared to the Grammar-Translation Method (GTM), there are several important implications to consider:

Pedagogical Choices

The findings suggest that educators teaching ancient Greek and possibly other ancient languages should consider adopting at least some CLT methods. Students who spend at least 50% of their time using CLT methods appear to have enhanced language learning experiences and higher self-efficacy (including higher reading self-efficacy) which can contribute to more

successful language acquisition and higher retention rates in ancient Greek language programs. These pedagogical choices align with established theories in language acquisition. Vygotsky's (1978) theory of social constructivism, emphasizing meaningful social interactions, resonates with CLT's collaborative and interactive nature. Krashen's (1981) affective filter hypothesis supports the notion that a low affective filter, fostered by positive language learning experiences and attitudes, contributes to improved language acquisition—an outcome associated with the use of CLT. Additionally, Nation's (2007) four strands of language learning advocate for a significant portion of language learners' time being devoted to CLT, reinforcing the educational merit of this approach. As CLT requires a different set of skills and teaching strategies compared to GTM, teacher training, and professional development programs should incorporate CLT methodologies to equip educators with the necessary skills to implement CLT effectively. There are many CLT programs that are equipped to help current GTM teachers and students gain fluency with CLT methods (ie. OMELIEN, Biblical Language Center, Biblingo, etc.).

Student Engagement

The emphasis placed by CLT on communication and interaction appears to offer students more captivating and immersive learning encounters. Educators should acknowledge the significance of involving students in authentic language use and communication. In a study by Yang et al. (2021) exploring the impact of different teaching methodologies on language learning experiences, the research findings indicated that pedagogical methods encouraging active involvement, interaction, and learner engagement notably improved the overall learning experience. There is an obvious connection between student engagement and the overall learning experience.

Student Self-Confidence

The higher self-efficacy scores among students in CLT-based programs indicate that this teaching method enhances students' confidence in their language learning abilities. Language educators should always consider how their pedagogical choices can promote greater self-efficacy in their students because research has shown that learners with higher self-efficacy or self-confidence tend to be more persistent in their pursuit of what they are learning and to set more difficult language learning goals, which eventually leads to higher levels of performance (Bandura, 1997; Dornyei, 2005; Ma, 2022).

Anxiety Management

Although CLT produced higher debilitating anxiety scores, this doesn't necessarily mean CLT should be discarded. Instead, educators should focus on identifying and addressing the specific aspects of CLT that may contribute to this debilitating anxiety, aligning with the findings of Dewaele and Li (2020), Dewaele et al. (2018), and Ma (2022). There is a need for language educators to use strategies for mitigating this anxiety, such as creating a supportive classroom environment, offering resources for anxiety management, or incorporating anxiety-reduction techniques into the curriculum. This suggestion is consistent with SLA research, which recognizes foreign language anxiety as a normal part of the language learner's experience (Gregersen et al., 2014; Horwitz et al., 1986). Therefore, each teacher should address and manage anxiety to foster a positive and effective language learning environment.

A Balanced Approach

Educators might consider using a balanced approach that combines elements of both CLT and GTM to harness the benefits of each while mitigating their respective drawbacks. This approach could address the anxiety-inducing aspects of CLT while retaining its advantages in

learning experiences and self-efficacy. This suggestion aligns directly with Nation's (2007) four strands of language learning which suggests that there is an optimal balanced approach to language learning that revolves around four equal strands (meaning-focused input, meaning-focused output, language-focused learning, and fluency development).

Future Research

Since reading primary source materials is the ultimate goal of learning an ancient language like ancient Greek, future research should delve deeper into the specific elements of CLT methods and the optimal amount of CLT that contributes to its effectiveness for gaining reading ability. Nation and Yamamoto argue that about 75% of classroom instruction should be focused on input, output, or fluency development (CLT) while 25% of classroom instruction should be focused on grammar instruction (2012, p.173). Future research should delve deeper into this division in order to see if Nation and Yamamoto's four strands are also optimal for ancient languages or if there should be an adjustment since the primary goal of learning an ancient language is reading while the primary goal of learning a modern language involves all ability in all four domains of language (reading, writing, listening, and speaking).

Diverse Student Needs

The diversity of our sample population indicates that CLT methods may be suitable for a wide range of students with varying backgrounds and abilities. Language educators need to recognize that students have different abilities and needs. While CLT may work well for some, others might benefit more from alternative approaches. Educators should be flexible in their teaching methods to accommodate diverse student populations.

Curriculum Design

Curriculum designers should consider adapting materials and activities to align with CLT principles in order to maximize language learning experience and self-efficacy while minimizing anxiety-inducing factors. Careful consideration of content and task design can help create a more supportive learning environment.

Continuous Assessment and Feedback

Language educators need to implement regular assessment and feedback mechanisms to monitor students' anxiety levels and adjust teaching strategies accordingly. This can help identify and address debilitating anxiety issues in real time.

In conclusion, our research provides robust support for the benefits of CLT in enhancing language learning experiences and self-efficacy, aligning with established theories in language acquisition. Vygotsky's (1978) theory of social constructivism, which highlights the need for meaningful social connections, aligns with the collaborative and participatory aspect of CLT. Krashen's (1981) affective filter hypothesis posits that a reduced affective filter, which is facilitated by positive language learning experiences and attitudes, enhances language acquisition. This outcome is closely linked to the use of CLT. In addition, Nation's (2007) four strands of language learning recommend that a substantial amount of time for language learners should be dedicated to meaning-focused input, meaning-focused output, and fluency development, which is most easily done with CLT. Although CLT has been linked to increased debilitating anxiety levels, our evidence-based suggestions stress the importance of educators adopting nuanced strategies, in line with the findings of Dewaele and Li (2020), Dewaele et al. (2018), and Ma (2022). Based on established research, these recommendations emphasize the continuous need to improve language teaching methods in order to establish productive and

encouraging learning environments (Bandura, 1997; Dornyei, 2005; Ma, 2022). This will ensure that language education practices are well-informed and based on research (Gregersen et al., 2014; Horwitz et al., 1986).

Limitations

Using a convenience sample of 123 participants from various ancient Greek language programs with differing levels of experience, ability, and course backgrounds is common in research but does come with certain limitations.

Here are some of the limitations associated with the current study:

Causal-Comparative Research Design

The causal-comparative research design is inherently limited in several ways. It is unable to determine causation and is restricted to detecting associations or connections between variables, which makes it difficult to determine a cause-and-effect relationship or to rule out other possible explanations. The generalizability of the data is typically limited to the unique environment in which it was acquired. The presence of biased samples and the possibility of measurement mistakes can potentially further impede the credibility of the findings. The difficulty in isolating variables, establishing temporal relationships, and the infeasibility of random assignment weaken the researcher's ability to make strong causal claims about the data which limits the predictive value of the research.

Sampling Bias

Convenience samples are not necessarily representative of the broader population. In this study, it is possible that the sample may not accurately reflect the entire population of students studying ancient Greek. This limits the generalizability of the findings to a wider population of ancient Greek learners.

External Validity

Due to the convenience sampling method and the specific characteristics of the sample, caution should be exercised when trying to generalize the findings to other settings or populations. The results may not apply to different groups of students or those with different language learning backgrounds.

Self-Selection Bias

Participants in convenience samples often self-select to participate. This can introduce bias, as those who volunteer may have a particular interest in the topic or a specific perspective, which may not be representative of the entire population.

Limited Control

Since the sample consists of students from various programs with varying levels of experience and ability, it is possible that there may be underlying differences in the way these programs are structured, the teaching quality, or other variables that could have influenced the results.

Assumptions Violations

The original MANOVA and independent samples *t*-test did not meet all of the required assumptions for each statistical test. However, Mann-Whitney U tests were used to test the robustness of the MANOVA and independent samples *t*-test results.

Recommendations for Future Research

To build upon this research, future studies could:

- **Replicate the Study:** Replicate the study with a larger and more diverse sample to enhance the generalizability of the findings.

- **Use a Quantitative Assessment of Language Proficiency:** Conduct standardized assessments of students' language proficiency in ancient Greek. Use established language proficiency tests or develop specialized assessments tailored to ancient Greek to measure the actual linguistic outcomes of CLT and GTM instruction.
- **Proficiency Levels and Learning Outcomes:** Analyze whether CLT and GTM have different effects on students at various proficiency levels. Explore how these methods impact the learning outcomes of beginners, intermediate, and advanced learners.
- **Long-Term Language Retention:** Investigate the long-term retention of language skills acquired through CLT and GTM. Follow up with participants after a certain period to assess their ability to retain and apply their language knowledge in practical contexts.
- **Qualitative Analysis:** Complement quantitative findings with qualitative research to gain a deeper understanding of the specific aspects of CLT and GTM that influence students' motivation language learning experiences, self-efficacy, and anxiety levels. Qualitative interviews and observations can provide additional valuable insights.
- **Longitudinal Study:** Implement longitudinal studies to track students' language development over an extended period, allowing for a more in-depth understanding of how CLT and GTM influence language achievement over time.
- **Comparative Analysis:** Compare the impact of different variations of CLT and GTM. Not all CLT or GTM programs are identical, and variations in implementation may yield different results. Examining these variations could provide valuable insights into effective teaching practices.
- **Teacher Training and Development:** Investigate the effectiveness of teacher training and professional development programs in preparing instructors to use CLT effectively

and to manage the potential challenges, including anxiety, that may arise in CLT-based classrooms.

- **Incorporate Technological Advancements:** Consider how technology, such as language learning apps, online resources, and virtual classrooms, can be integrated into CLT and GTM approaches to enhance student achievement and language proficiency.
- **Teacher and Student Perspectives:** Collect feedback from both teachers and students regarding their perceptions of the effectiveness of CLT and GTM in achieving language learning goals. Compare these perspectives with actual student achievement outcomes.

In conclusion, our research demonstrates that the adoption of Communicative Language Teaching (CLT) in ancient Greek language programs yields substantial positive outcomes across various facets of student language learning experiences, surpassing the Grammar Translation Method (GTM). Although no significant disparities in student motivation and facilitating anxiety are discerned between these instructional methods, this research has found that CLT provides better language learning experiences, bolsters overall self-efficacy, and elevates reading self-efficacy. It is also important to acknowledge a slight rise in debilitating anxiety has been linked to CLT, which requires careful consideration when adopting CLT methods.

These results are consistent with well-known theories in the field of language learning, such as Vygotsky's (1978) social constructivism. This theory highlights the importance of meaningful social interactions within the context of CLT. The findings of our study are in line with Krashen's (1981) affective filter hypothesis, which suggests that the positive language learning experiences promoted by CLT help reduce the affective filter, leading to improved language acquisition. Furthermore, the four strands of language acquisition proposed by Nation (2007), which highlight the crucial importance of CLT in a learner's educational progress,

provide further confirmation of the effectiveness of these techniques. Current SLA research also acknowledges foreign language anxiety as a common part of the language learning process (Gregersen et al., 2014; Horwitz et al., 1986). Based on the research conducted by Dewaele and Li (2020), Dewaele et al. (2018), and Ma (2022), it is recommended that language educators pinpoint and tackle the specific elements of CLT that contribute to anxiety.

Furthermore, our research emphasizes the possibility of a well-rounded and balanced strategy, incorporating aspects of both CLT and GTM to enhance language learning results. This proposal aligns closely with Nation's (2007) four strands of language acquisition, advocating for a holistic strategy that incorporates the advantages of both approaches while minimizing their respective limitations. For future research, it is crucial to further investigate the precise components of CLT and its most effective incorporation to enhance reading proficiency in ancient languages. Further examination of the distinction suggested by Nation and Yamamoto (2012) regarding the optimal allocation of classroom instruction time between CLT and grammar instruction in language settings might also enhance the precision of instructional approaches. These findings contribute to the ongoing discussion on the effectiveness of language teaching methods and provide valuable insights for language educators and researchers in the field of ancient Greek SLA.

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Appendix A

IRB Approval

August 10, 2023

Dustin Humphreys
Michelle Barthlow

Re: IRB Exemption - IRB-FY22-23-1749 THE EFFECTS OF COMMUNICATIVE LANGUAGE TEACHING METHODS (CLT) OF TEACHING ANCIENT GREEK ON STUDENT MOTIVATION, LANGUAGE LEARNING EXPERIENCE, SELF-EFFICACY, AND ANXIETY COMPARED TO THE GRAMMAR-TRANSLATION METHOD (GTM)

Dear Dustin Humphreys, Michelle Barthlow,

The Liberty University Institutional Review Board (IRB) has reviewed your application in accordance with the Office for Human Research Protections (OHRP) and Food and Drug Administration (FDA) regulations and finds your study to be exempt from further IRB review. This means you may begin your research with the data safeguarding methods mentioned in your approved application, and no further IRB oversight is required.

Your study falls under the following exemption category, which identifies specific situations in which human participants research is exempt from the policy set forth in 45 CFR 46:104(d):

Category 2.(i). Research that only includes interactions involving educational tests (cognitive, diagnostic, aptitude, achievement), survey procedures, interview procedures, or observation of public behavior (including visual or auditory recording) if at least one of the following criteria is met: The information obtained is recorded by the investigator in such a manner that the identity of the human subjects cannot readily be ascertained, directly or through identifiers linked to the subjects;

For a PDF of your exemption letter, click on your study number in the My Studies card on your Cayuse dashboard. Next, click the Submissions bar beside the Study Details bar on the Study details page. Finally, click Initial under Submission Type and choose the Letters tab toward the bottom of the Submission Details page. Your information sheet and final versions of your study documents can also be found on the same page under the Attachments tab.

Please note that this exemption only applies to your current research application, and any modifications to your protocol must be reported to the Liberty University IRB for verification of continued exemption status. You may report these changes by completing a modification submission through your Cayuse IRB account.

If you have any questions about this exemption or need assistance in determining whether possible modifications to your protocol would change your exemption status, please email us at irb@liberty.edu.

Sincerely,
G. Michele Baker, PhD, CIP
Administrative Chair
Research Ethics Office

Appendix B

Consent

Title of the Project: The Effects of Communicative Language Teaching Methods (CLT) of Teaching Ancient Greek on Student Motivation, Language Learning Experience, Self-Efficacy, and Anxiety Compared to the Grammar-Translation Method (GTM).

Principal Investigator: Dustin Humphreys, Doctoral Candidate, School of Education, Liberty University

Invitation to be Part of a Research Study

You are invited to participate in a research study. To participate, you must be 18 years of age or older and a language student who has completed at least one ancient Greek language course (roughly one semester-long or equivalent). Taking part in this research project is voluntary.

Please take time to read this entire form and ask questions before deciding whether to take part in this research.

What is the study about and why is it being done?

The purpose of my research is to better understand how different teaching methods impact motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety among ancient Greek language learners.

What will happen if you take part in this study?

If you agree to be in this study, I will ask you to do the following:

1. Participate in an online questionnaire that will take no more than 10 minutes.

How could you or others benefit from this study?

Participants should not expect to receive a direct benefit from taking part in this study.

Benefits to society include helping colleges, seminaries, and other language learning schools that teach classical languages like ancient Greek explore how teachings methods like the grammar-translation method (GTM) and communicative language teaching (CLT) methods might provide a positive or negative effect on student motivation, language learning experience, self-efficacy, and anxiety among their ancient Greek students. This data could help language programs develop the most effective programs which would lead to higher retention rates and prolonged usage of language skills beyond graduation.

What risks might you experience from being in this study?

The expected risks from participating in this study are minimal, which means they are equal to the risks you would encounter in everyday life.

How will personal information be protected?

The records of this study will be kept private. Research records will be stored securely, and only the researcher will have access to the records.

- Participant responses to the online survey will be anonymous.
- Data will be stored on a password-locked computer. After three years, all electronic records will be deleted, and all hardcopy records will be shredded.

Is study participation voluntary?

Participation in this study is voluntary. Your decision whether to participate will not affect your current or future relations with the ancient Greek language program you are associated with. If you decide to participate, you are free to not answer any question or withdraw at any time prior to submitting the survey without affecting those relationships.

What should you do if you decide to withdraw from the study?

If you choose to withdraw from the study, please exit the survey and close your internet browser. Your responses will not be recorded or included in the study.

Whom do you contact if you have questions or concerns about the study?

The researcher conducting this study is Dustin Humphreys. You may ask any questions you have now. If you have questions later, **you are encouraged** to contact him at [REDACTED]. You may also contact the researcher's faculty sponsor, Dr. Michelle Barthlow, at [REDACTED].

Whom do you contact if you have questions about your rights as a research participant?

If you have any questions or concerns regarding this study and would like to talk to someone other than the researcher, **you are encouraged** to contact the IRB. Our physical address is Institutional Review Board, 1971 University Blvd., Green Hall Ste. 2845, Lynchburg, VA, 24515; our phone number is 434-592-5530, and our email address is irb@liberty.edu.

Disclaimer: The Institutional Review Board (IRB) is tasked with ensuring that human subjects research will be conducted in an ethical manner as defined and required by federal regulations. The topics covered and viewpoints expressed or alluded to by student and faculty researchers are those of the researchers and do not necessarily reflect the official policies or positions of Liberty University.

Your Consent

Before agreeing to be part of the research, please be sure that you understand what the study is about. If you have any questions about the study later, you can contact the researcher using the information provided above.

Appendix C

Questionnaire (28 items)

Motivated learning behavior (5 items)

- MLB1. I am willing to work hard at learning the ancient Greek language.
- MLB2. Learning the ancient Greek language is one of the most important aspects in my life.
- MLB3. I am determined to push myself to learn the ancient Greek language.
- MLB4. I can honestly say that I am really doing my best to learn the ancient Greek language.
- MLB5. It is very important for me to learn the ancient Greek language.

Language learning experience (4 items)

- LLE1: Ancient Greek language lessons are always fun.
- LLE2: I really like the tasks we do during ancient Greek language lessons.
- LLE3: I never get bored during ancient Greek language lessons.
- LLE4: I really like the ancient Greek language lessons.

Self-efficacy (9 items)

- SE1: I am confident that I can do the speaking tasks in the ancient Greek language class.
- SE2: I am confident that I can do the silent reading tasks in the ancient Greek language class.
- SE3: I am confident that I can do the writing tasks in the ancient Greek language class.
- SE4: I am confident that I can do the listening tasks in the ancient Greek language class.
- SE5: I am confident that I can understand what is said in the ancient Greek language in class.
- SE6: I am confident that I can answer questions using ancient Greek in class.
- SE7: I am confident that I can understand what is said in the ancient Greek language outside the classroom.
- SE8: I am confident that I can understand what I read in the ancient Greek language outside the classroom.
- SE9: I am confident that I can express myself in writing in the ancient Greek language outside the classroom.

Facilitating anxiety (5 items)

- FA1: I work best under pressure.
- FA2: In ancient Greek language class, I do better when I'm a little anxious.
- FA3: In ancient Greek language class, the more important the task, the better I seem to do.
- FA4: In ancient Greek language class, I enjoy doing a difficult task more than an easy one.
- FA5: If I have started a task during the ancient Greek language class, nothing can keep me from finishing it.

Debilitating anxiety (5 items)

- DA1: It is even more difficult to do a hard task when it is graded because I am afraid of getting a bad mark.
- DA2: Nervousness while doing a task in the ancient Greek language class hinders me from doing well.
- DA3: The more important the task is in the ancient Greek language class, the less well I seem to do because I become nervous.

DA4: If the teacher calls on me in the ancient Greek language class, I often forget answers to questions to which I know the answers, even though I might remember them later.

DA5: Time pressure always seems to make me do worse than the others on language tasks in the ancient Greek language class.

Appendix D

Email giving Permission to Use and Adapt Instrument

April 26, 2023

Re: Request for Permission to Use and Modify Instrument for Dissertation

Dear Dustin,

Your study sounds interesting! You are welcome to adapt and use the questionnaire for your research purposes.

Kind regards,
Katalin Piniel

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